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Heating-cooling asymmetry in quantum systems

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Heating-cooling asymmetry in quantum systems

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*Para minha família, meus amigos
e outros seres vivos que cruzaram meu caminho.*

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“Eu levarei o Anel, embora eu não saiba o caminho.”
- *Frodo Bolseiro (J. R. R. Tolkien, O Senhor dos Anéis)*

ABSTRACT

LUZ, C. R. **Heating-cooling asymmetry in quantum systems**. 2026. 85 p.
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Understanding how quantum systems equilibrate is a fundamental question with implications for quantum technologies, such as state preparation for quantum computing. However, linear response theory fails to explain the thermal relaxation of far-from-equilibrium classical and quantum systems. In this context, recent studies have reported a relaxation asymmetry, where heating is faster than cooling for initial states that are thermodynamically equidistant from equilibrium, but understanding how quantum resources affect this asymmetry is still an open question. In this work, we investigate the heating and cooling asymmetry in discrete and continuous-variable quantum systems. For the discrete case, we study two interacting qubits coupled to a global bosonic bath, focusing on the effects of initial coherences, steady state correlations generated by the dynamics and local non-Markovianity. For the continuous case, we consider Gaussian states and compare the thermal relaxation asymmetry of displaced and squeezed states. Our results for the discrete case indicate that non-Markovianity may accelerate thermal relaxation, while the initial coherences do not change the equilibration time. In Gaussian systems, applying the displacement operator in the initial states does not affect the asymmetry, but applying the squeezing operator reduces the asymmetry. Additionally, we show an inversion of the asymmetry, making cooling faster than heating, by squeezing the hotter state and displacing the cooler state.

Keywords: asymmetry; relaxation; two-interacting qubits; Gaussian systems.

RESUMO

LUZ, C. R. **Assimetria de aquecer e resfriar em sistemas quânticos**. 2026. 85 p. Dissertação (Mestrado em Ciências) - Instituto de Física de São Carlos, Universidade de São Paulo, São Carlos, 2026.

Compreender como sistemas quânticos equilibram é uma pergunta fundamental com implicações em tecnologias quânticas, como preparação de estados para computação quântica. Porém, teorias de resposta linear apresentam falhas ao descrever a relaxação térmica no regime quântico e de sistemas longe do equilíbrio. Nesse contexto, estudos recentes reportaram uma assimetria de relaxação onde aquecer é mais rápido do que resfriar estados iniciais termodinamicamente equidistantes, mas entender como recursos quânticos afetam essa assimetria ainda é uma pergunta em aberto. Neste trabalho, investigamos a assimetria de aquecer e resfriar em sistemas quânticos discretos e contínuos. No caso discreto, estudamos dois qubits interagentes acoplados a um banho bosônico global, focando nos efeitos de coerências iniciais, correlações no estado estacionário geradas pela dinâmica e não-Markovianidade local. No caso contínuo, consideramos estados Gaussianos e comparamos a assimetria de relaxação térmica de estados deslocados e comprimidos. Nossos resultados para o caso discreto indicam que a não-Markovianidade pode acelerar a relaxação térmica enquanto que a coerência inicial não altera o tempo de equilíbrio. Em sistemas Gaussianos, aplicar o operador de deslocamento no estado inicial não afetou a assimetria, mas aplicar o operador de compressão reduziu a assimetria. Além disso, mostramos que é possível inverter a assimetria, obtendo resfriamento mais rápido do que aquecimento, ao comprimir o estado mais quente e deslocando o estado mais frio.

Palavras-chave: assimetria; relaxação; dois qubits interagentes; sistemas Gaussianos.

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1 INTRODUCTION

If physical theories were people, thermodynamics would be the village witch. [...] The other theories find her somewhat odd, somehow different in nature from the rest, yet everyone comes to her for advice, and no-one dares to contradict her.

- Goold, Huber, Riera, del Rio, Skrzypczyk (2016)

The reason everyone comes to this “village witch” for advice is her pragmatic approach to nature. Instead of trying to describe microscopic details of a system, she focus on what can be done with its macroscopic resources. This is a consequence of thermodynamics being developed in the context of thermal machines and the goal to achieve efficient exploitation of the natural world. Moreover, this theory development brought fundamental laws regarding energy flow and transformation that have been used in different areas of physics, chemistry, biology, and other sciences. Despite thermodynamics describing macroscopic systems near equilibrium, there is a great effort to extend its concepts to nonequilibrium and quantum regime (1–4). This connection of quantum mechanics and thermodynamics can help to understand how quantum systems exchange energy with its surroundings. Because quantum properties can affect transient dynamics (5–7), relaxation processes of quantum systems become a non-trivial and timely problem.

Relaxation processes are studied in different areas of physics. Some usual examples are resistor-capacitor circuit, damped harmonic oscillators, dielectric relaxation, and thermal relaxation (8–12). Despite their distinct contexts, this processes are connected in a general way with the question of how systems evolve in time after a perturbation. In this work, we will focus on thermal relaxation processes where we have system interacting with an environment. According to thermodynamics, thermal relaxation occurs the variation of the system’s temperature until it reaches a steady state. If the system is in a thermodynamic state near equilibrium, this evolution can be described using linear response theory, such as Onsager-Casimir and Kubo-Yokota-Nakajima laws (13). In this regime, the mean behaviour of statistical fluctuations is the same as the macroscopic system, being valid the assumption that the dynamics is memoryless and symmetric. Considering a thermal relaxation process, symmetry means that heating up or cooling down the system will take the same amount of time and follow the same thermodynamic trajectory (13–16).

However, thermal relaxation symmetry can break for systems initially far from equilibrium and quantum systems, where linear response theory fails. One example of thermal relaxation asymmetry is the Mpemba effect. First observations of the Mpemba effect were that a hotter system (such as water) would cool down faster than a colder one

(17–19). There is also the inverse Mpemba effect that occurs in heating processes instead of cooling (19). In general terms, Mpemba-like effects consist of a system further from equilibrium relaxing faster than another system closer to equilibrium. In this respect, Mpemba effects have been explored in the quantum regime (19–23). One example is the ergotropic Mpemba effect, in which squeezed states relax faster than displaced states even when the squeezed state has more extractable work (ergotropy), that means it is further from equilibrium (24). Another relaxation asymmetry that emerges in the far-from-equilibrium regime is the heating-cooling asymmetry. Recent experiments using Brownian motion showed that heating is faster than cooling (13, 14, 25). This was also observed to happen in quantum systems, such as a qubit, a quantum harmonic oscillator, and in quantum Brownian motion (26, 27). However, this behaviour is not universal, as it is possible to observe cooling relaxing faster than heating depending on the system’s characteristics, for example, energy gap or degeneracy in systems with more than two levels (19, 28, 29). In addition, it is interesting that this heating-cooling asymmetry can also appear when comparing the usual Mpemba effect (cooling) with the inverse Mpemba effect (heating) (19).

A better understanding of relaxation asymmetries can be useful for state preparation (30,31), optimal transport (32), heat engines (33,34), and other applications (19). For this purpose, beyond phenomenological characterisation, it is fundamental to study the physical mechanisms generating the asymmetries. To do this, previous studies developed an approach named thermal kinematics (that will be discussed in Chapter 3) using the combination of stochastic thermodynamics and information geometry (14, 35, 36). In thermal kinematics, thermodynamic states can be interpreted as points in a manifold, and we can define a distance between different states. As the system evolves in time, it will have a velocity and follow a thermodynamic trajectory in this manifold. Using this approach, Ref. (14) proved that heating and cooling systems far from equilibrium follow distinct thermodynamic trajectories. Later, thermal kinematics was extended to the quantum regime, where this same result was obtained (26). From a thermodynamic perspective, previous works showed that heating-cooling asymmetry can be explained by entropy production, in which heating is faster because it has a higher entropy production than cooling can dissipate heat (37). In addition to these works, understanding the consequences of quantumness in the heating-cooling asymmetry is still an open question. It is known that quantum correlations have consequences in thermodynamic processes, such as the case of anomalous heat exchange (38) and non-classical work extraction (39, 40). Additionally, in the context of thermal relaxation, coherence in a qubit was shown to delay equilibration (20). Therefore, the main question of this work is what quantumness do with the heating-cooling asymmetry.

There is a variety of systems and models we can use to explore this question. By observing different physical theories and phenomena, we see that discrete and continuous-

variable models bring complementary explanations of nature. In addition, finding the analogous phenomena in both types of systems also enriches potential technological applications. Motivated by these considerations, this work explores the thermal relaxation asymmetry in both discrete and continuous-variable quantum systems. For the discrete case, we will focus on the thermal relaxation of two interacting qubits coupled to a global bath. Despite the variety of quantum properties we could investigate, we will focus only on quantum coherence and entanglement for this model. For the continuous-variable case, we focus on Gaussian states due to their relevance in quantum theory and experimental accessibility (41–43).

In this work, we start discussing how open quantum systems evolve in time in Chap. 2, where we derive the Lindblad master equation and present the thermalization dynamics called Davies map, that will be used in our results. Then, in Chap. 3, we extend some thermodynamics concepts and quantities to the quantum regime, such as entropy and free energy. This chapter also introduces the thermal kinematics approach for both classical and quantum regime. Chap. 4 starts presenting the quantum properties that we will study for the discrete case. Next, we show our results for the heating-cooling asymmetry in two-interacting qubits model, where we investigate the effects of initial global coherences and correlations generated between the qubits during the dynamics. In Chap. 5, we present the continuous-variable systems we will study that are Gaussian states. After showing the basic concepts, we discuss the thermalization of Gaussian states and reformulate the thermal kinematics approach for this case. With this, we show the results for the heating-cooling asymmetry in a thermal state, a displaced state, a squeezed state, and we show one way to invert the asymmetry. We end this work by summarising our results and suggesting future directions on this research topic.

2 QUANTUM SYSTEMS DYNAMICS

This chapter introduces how quantum systems evolve in time. In Sec. 2.1, we begin discussing the unitary evolution of closed quantum systems and argument how unitary dynamics fails to describe open quantum systems. Then, in Sec. 2.2, we will present the Markovian master equation approach and discuss how it can describe thermalisation processes in Sec. 2.2.1. The content of this chapter are based on Refs. (5, 44, 45).

2.1 Dynamics of Closed Quantum Systems

Quantum mechanics was initially formulated for closed systems, whose physical states are represented as a normalised vector $|\psi\rangle$ in the Hilbert space $\mathcal{H}$. This representation contains all the information about the physical state and it is called pure state. However, another mathematically equivalent formulation is more convenient for describing quantum systems whose states are not fully known. In these cases, it is only possible to assign a probability p_i of the system existing in the state $|\psi_i\rangle$, which is encapsulated in the density operator,

$$\rho = \sum_i p_i |\psi_i\rangle \langle \psi_i|. \quad (2.1)$$

The pure state is a special case in the density operator notation, where it is written as $\rho = |\psi\rangle \langle \psi|$. The density operator (also called density matrix) must satisfy the following conditions: (1) the sum of all p_i is equal to one, which is equivalent to $\text{Tr}[\rho] = 1$, and (2) it is positive semi-definite, which means all ρ eigenvalues are $\lambda_k \geq 0$.

The time evolution of closed quantum systems is given by the Schrödinger equation,

$$i\hbar \frac{d}{dt} |\psi(t)\rangle = H(t) |\psi(t)\rangle, \quad (2.2)$$

where $H(t)$ is the system's Hamiltonian and Planck's constant will be $\hbar = 1$ from now on. This equation can be translated into the density matrices notation as the Liouville-von Neumann equation,

$$\frac{d}{dt} \rho(t) = -i[H(t), \rho(t)]. \quad (2.3)$$

Its solution describes the unitary evolution of an initial state $\rho(0)$ as

$$\rho(t) = U(t)\rho(0)U^\dagger(t), \quad (2.4)$$

where $U(t)$ is a unitary operator, that has the form $U(t) = \exp -iHt$ for time-independent Hamiltonians, for example. This operator is called unitary because of the properties $U^{-1} = U^\dagger$ and $UU^\dagger = \mathbb{I}$, in which $\mathbb{I}$ is the identity matrix. As a consequence, the unitary dynamics preserve the information of the system, resulting in a time-reversible process.

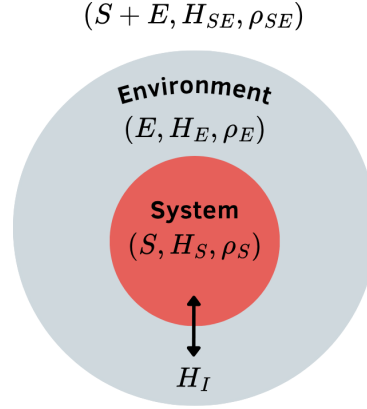


Figure 1 – A system S described by the Hamiltonian H_S is at a state ρ_S and it is coupled to an environment E described by the Hamiltonian H_E that is at a state ρ_E . They can interact according to Hamiltonian H_I and together they form a close system $S + E$ described by the Hamiltonian H_{SE} at a state ρ_{SE} .

Source: By the author

Even though all this formalism describes a variety of quantum phenomena, it is an idealisation because every physical system interacts with an environment, which can change the system's dynamics. If we consider a quantum systems (S) interacting with an environment (E), we can assume that together they form a closed quantum system that evolves in time by the unitary dynamics described before. The total system ($S + E$) is defined by the Hamiltonian

$$H_{SE} = H_S \otimes \mathbb{I}_E + \mathbb{I}_S \otimes H_E + H_I, \quad (2.5)$$

where H_S is the system's Hamiltonian, H_E is the environment's Hamiltonian, and H_I describes the system-environment interaction. The environment is usually considered to have infinite degrees of freedom, over which we cannot access information or have control. As a result, the system S is the only part we can manipulate, being the focus of our studies. However, because the system S exchanges information with the environment, it cannot be described by a unitary dynamics. This is what we call an open quantum system, illustrated in Fig. 1, whose dynamics will be discussed in the next section.

2.2 Dynamics of Open Quantum Systems

In this section, we discuss the fundamental steps to obtain the Gorini-Kossakowski-Sudarshan-Lindblad (GKSL) master equation, also called the Lindblad master equation for short (5, 46, 47). We assume the time evolution of the total system ($S + E$) is unitary, meaning that the Liouville-von Neumann equation (Eq. (2.3)) can be used. However, we do not have access to all the information of the environment, and including its dynamics in the calculation can be overwhelming. Fortunately, it is possible to describe the system's

dynamics while taking into account environmental effects, without needing to deal with the environment's time evolution.

Up to this point, we have used the Schrödinger picture, in which the state evolves with time while the observables remain unchanged. In this section, we will change to the interaction picture, where the Lindblad master equation is easier to deduce. The interaction picture has both states and operators changing with time (5, 48). To convert from the Schrödinger picture to the interaction picture, we split the total Hamiltonian into the system's Hamiltonian and a perturbation part (which can be time-dependent) as $H(t) = H_0 + V(t)$. Then, we define the interaction picture unitary operator $U_I(t) = U_0^\dagger(t)U(t)$ where $U(t)$ is the time-evolution operator of the Schrödinger picture discussed before (Eq. (2.4)) and $U_0(t) = \exp[-iH_0t]$ (5, 48). This allows us to write the state time-evolution in the interaction picture as

$$|\psi(t)\rangle_I = U_0^\dagger(t) |\psi(t)\rangle = U_I(t) |\psi(0)\rangle, \quad (2.6)$$

which is equivalent to writing the time-evolution of the density matrix as

$$\rho_I(t) = U_0^\dagger(t)\rho(t)U_0(t) = U_I(t)\rho(0)U_I^\dagger(t). \quad (2.7)$$

For observables, the time-evolution becomes

$$O_I(t) = U_0^\dagger(t)OU_0(t). \quad (2.8)$$

Now, we can take the time derivative of Eq. (2.6) as

$$\begin{aligned} i\frac{d}{dt} |\psi(t)\rangle_I &= i\frac{d}{dt} U_0^\dagger(t) |\psi(t)\rangle + iU_0^\dagger(t) \frac{d}{dt} |\psi(t)\rangle \\ &= iU_0^\dagger(t)(-iH_0) |\psi(t)\rangle + U_0^\dagger(t)(H_0 + V(t)) |\psi(t)\rangle \\ &= U_0^\dagger(t)V_I(t)U_0(t)U_0^\dagger(t) |\psi(t)\rangle \\ &= V_I(t) |\psi(t)\rangle_I, \end{aligned} \quad (2.9)$$

where in the second line we used Eq. (2.2), and included an identity to get the interaction picture of the perturbation, $V_I(t) = U_0^\dagger(t)V(t)U_0(t)$ (5, 48). Additionally, this result can be extended to the density matrices, resulting in the interaction picture Liouville-von Neumann equation,

$$\frac{d}{dt}\rho(t) = -i[V_I(t), \rho(t)]. \quad (2.10)$$

With this picture change, we can go back to the open quantum system discussion. The system and environment without interaction is described by the Hamiltonian $H_0 = H_S \otimes \mathbb{I}_E + \mathbb{I}_S \otimes H_E$ and their interaction is given by $V_I(t) = H_I(t)$. Because $S + E$ is considered a closed system, their Liouville-von Neumann equation becomes

$$\frac{d}{dt}\rho_{SE}(t) = -i[H_I(t), \rho_{SE}(t)]. \quad (2.11)$$

We can formally integrate this equation in time and substitute into itself, obtaining

$$\frac{d}{dt}\rho_{SE}(t) = -i[H_I(t), \rho_{SE}(0)] - \int_0^t ds [H_I(t), [H_I(s), \rho_{SE}(s)]]. \quad (2.12)$$

This equation still takes account of the environment's time evolution and degrees of freedom, which can be overwhelming to solve as previously discussed. To solve this issue, we will make some assumptions and approximations to describe only the system's dynamics including environmental effects. First, we will assume that the system-environment initial state is separable, meaning they are not correlated, $\rho_{SE}(0) = \rho_S(0) \otimes \rho_E(0)$. Next, we can do the Born approximation that consists of considering a weak interaction between the system and the environment, which keeps the global state ($\rho_{SE}(t)$) separable throughout the evolution. Given that the environment has much more degrees of freedom than the system, we can assume that the weak effects of the system will not change the environment's state. As a result, the environment's state is constant in time and from now on denoted by ρ_E . Because we are interested in the system dynamics, we can trace out the environment degrees of freedom, resulting in

$$\frac{d}{dt}\rho_S(t) = -i\text{Tr}_E[H_I(t), \rho_S(0) \otimes \rho_E] - \int_0^t ds \text{Tr}_E[H_I(t), [H_I(s), \rho_S(s) \otimes \rho_E]]. \quad (2.13)$$

We will also consider the environment autocorrelation function is much shorter than the system relaxation time. In other words, this means that any perturbation of the system on the environment will be rapidly dissipated, resulting in a memoryless dynamics. This is called the Markovian approximation and guarantees that the system can only lose information to the environment. The absence of memory means that future states of the system do not depend on past states, so we use $\rho_S(s) = \rho_S(t)$. The last step to obtain a Markovian master equation is to make the dynamics independent of the system's initial state. This can be achieved by substituting $s \rightarrow t - s$ and extending $t \rightarrow \infty$. Thus, we find the Redfield equation,

$$\frac{d}{dt}\rho_S(t) = -i\text{Tr}_E[H_I(t), \rho_S(0) \otimes \rho_E] - \text{Tr}_E \int_0^\infty ds [H_I(t), [H_I(t-s), \rho_S(t) \otimes \rho_E]]. \quad (2.14)$$

Although Eq. (2.14) can describe the relaxation of open quantum systems, it does not guarantee the positivity of probabilities, which can lead to unphysical results. A solution is to use the secular approximation. To apply it, we consider that a perturbation of the bath set off a single effect on the system, that is, no multiple transitions can occur simultaneously in the system. Then, the interaction Hamiltonian in the Schrödinger picture can be decomposed as

$$H_I = A \otimes B, \quad (2.15)$$

where A and B are Hermitian operators acting on the system and the environment, respectively. The next step is to write A in terms of the eigenstates of the system's

Hamiltonian, $H_S |n\rangle = \lambda_n |n\rangle$. To make the secular approximation, we will separate this operator as $A = \sum_{\omega} A(\omega)$, where

$$A(\omega) = \sum_{\substack{n,m \\ \omega=\lambda_m-\lambda_n}} |n\rangle \langle n| A |m\rangle \langle m|, \quad (2.16)$$

is summing over all combinations of states that have transition frequency ω . In the interaction picture, this Hamiltonian becomes

$$H_I(t) = \sum_{\omega} e^{-i\omega t} A(\omega) \otimes B(t) = \sum_{\omega'} e^{i\omega' t} A^{\dagger}(\omega') \otimes B^{\dagger}(t), \quad (2.17)$$

where the last equality follows the property $A(\omega) = A^{\dagger}(-\omega)$ and $\omega' = -\omega$. With this decompositions, we can write the interaction Hamiltonians from Eq. (2.14) as

$$H_I(t-s) = \sum_{\omega} e^{-i\omega(t-s)} A(\omega) \otimes B(t-s), \quad (2.18)$$

$$H_I(t) = \sum_{\omega'} e^{i\omega' t} A^{\dagger}(\omega') \otimes B^{\dagger}(t). \quad (2.19)$$

When we use these definitions, we will have that the first term in Redfield equation (Eq. (2.14)) is

$$-i\text{Tr}_E[H_I(t), \rho_S(0) \otimes \rho_E] = -i \sum_{\omega'} e^{-i\omega' t} [A^{\dagger}(\omega'), \rho_S(0)] \langle B^{\dagger}(t) \rangle_E, \quad (2.20)$$

where $\langle B^{\dagger}(t) \rangle_E = \text{Tr}[B^{\dagger}(t)\rho_E]$ is the one-point correlation function. Assuming the environment is at a steady state, we have $\langle B^{\dagger}(t) \rangle_E = 0$ and the first term in Eq. (2.14) disappears (43, 49). Thus, we obtain

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{d}{dt}\rho_S(t) &= -\text{Tr}_E \int_0^{\infty} ds [H_I(t), [H_I(t-s), \rho_S(t) \otimes \rho_E]] \\ &= \sum_{\omega, \omega'} e^{i(\omega' - \omega)t} \Gamma(\omega) (A(\omega)\rho_S(t)A^{\dagger}(\omega') - A^{\dagger}(\omega')A(\omega)\rho_S(t)) + \text{h.c.}, \end{aligned} \quad (2.21)$$

where h.c means Hermitian conjugate and

$$\Gamma(\omega) = \int_0^{\infty} ds e^{i\omega s} \langle B^{\dagger}(t)B(t-s) \rangle_E, \quad (2.22)$$

with $\langle B^{\dagger}(s)B(0) \rangle_E = \text{Tr}[B^{\dagger}(s)B(0)\rho_E]$ being the two-point correlation functions of the bath. The secular approximation imposes that the terms with $\omega \neq \omega'$ oscillate so fast that they do not affect the relaxation process. As a result, only the resonance case ($\omega = \omega'$) contribute to the equation. Thus, we have

$$\frac{d}{dt}\rho_S(t) = \sum_{\omega} \Gamma(\omega) (A(\omega)\rho_S(t)A^{\dagger}(\omega) - A^{\dagger}(\omega)A(\omega)\rho_S(t)) + \text{h.c.} \quad (2.23)$$

One last step to obtain the usual form of the Lindblad master equation is to separate $\Gamma(\omega)$ into its real and imaginary parts as

$$\Gamma(\omega) = \frac{1}{2}\gamma(\omega) + iS(\omega), \quad (2.24)$$

where the transition rate is

$$\gamma(\omega) = \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} ds e^{i\omega s} \langle B^\dagger(s) B(0) \rangle_E, \quad (2.25)$$

and $S(\omega)$ produce slight changes on the system's energy levels, which are included in the Lamb shift Hamiltonian (5)

$$H_{LS} = \sum_{\omega} S(\omega) A^\dagger(\omega) A(\omega). \quad (2.26)$$

As a result, the Lindblad master equation in the interaction picture has the form

$$\frac{d}{dt}\rho_S(t) = -i[H_{LS}, \rho_S(t)] + \mathcal{D}(\rho_S(t)), \quad (2.27)$$

with the dissipator being

$$\mathcal{D}(\rho_S) = \sum_{\omega} \gamma(\omega) \left(A(\omega) \rho_S A^\dagger(\omega) - \frac{1}{2} \{A^\dagger(\omega) A(\omega), \rho_S\} \right), \quad (2.28)$$

where $A(\omega)$ are usually called jump or Lindblad operators. In the Schrödinger picture, the Lindblad master equation becomes

$$\frac{d}{dt}\rho_S(t) = -i[H_S + H_{LS}, \rho_S(t)] + \mathcal{D}(\rho_S(t)), \quad (2.29)$$

where the jump operators remain the same. It is very common to neglect the Lamb shift Hamiltonian because it only changes the energy gap of the system without changing the Hamiltonian structure. That said, from now on, we will use only the H_S in our Lindblad master equation.

2.2.1 Davies Maps

An important class of Lindblad master equations is the Davies maps, which generate the thermalisation of a quantum system weakly coupled to a thermal bath at inverse temperature β (50). The steady state of the Davies maps is always an equilibrium thermal state (also called Gibbs state), that is defined as

$$\rho_{ss} = \frac{e^{-\beta H_S}}{\mathcal{Z}_S}, \quad (2.30)$$

where $\mathcal{Z}_S = \text{Tr}[\exp(-\beta H_S)]$ is the partition function. An important characteristic of this dynamics is that it represent processes that obey the detailed balance condition, meaning that the transition rates $\gamma(\omega)$ in Eq. (2.25) must satisfy

$$\gamma(-\omega) = \gamma(\omega)e^{-\beta\omega}. \quad (2.31)$$

Given these conditions, the jump operators of the Davies map have a specific format. Let's rewrite the dissipator Eq. (2.28) as

$$\mathcal{D}(\rho_S) = \sum_{\omega} L_{\omega} \rho_S L_{\omega}^{\dagger} - \frac{1}{2} \{L_{\omega}^{\dagger} L_{\omega}, \rho_S\}, \quad (2.32)$$

defining the jump operators as $L_{\omega} = \sqrt{\gamma(\omega)} A(\omega)$. To compute the transition rate, $\gamma(\omega)$, according to Eq. (2.25), we assume that our environment is a thermal bath. The thermal bath can be described by a set of infinite independent harmonic oscillators, $H_E = \sum_k \omega_k b_k^{\dagger} b_k$, where ω_k is the frequency of the k -mode, and b_k and $b_k^{\dagger}$ are the annihilation and creation operators of the k -mode. That said, the Hermitian operator from Eq. (2.15) is $B = \sum_k (g_k b_k^{\dagger} + g_k^* b_k)$, which in the interaction picture becomes

$$B(s) = \sum_k (g_k b_k^{\dagger} e^{i\omega_k s} + g_k^* b_k e^{-i\omega_k s}), \quad (2.33)$$

with g_k being the system-environment coupling parameter. The density matrix of the thermal bath is

$$\rho_E = \prod_i (1 - e^{-\beta\omega_i}) e^{-\beta\omega_i b_i^{\dagger} b_i}, \quad (2.34)$$

with which we can compute the correlation functions (defined in Eq. (2.25)), obtaining

$$\langle B^{\dagger}(s) B(0) \rangle_E = \sum_k |g_k|^2 (e^{-i\omega_k s} (\bar{n}(\omega_k) + 1) + e^{i\omega_k s} \bar{n}(\omega_k)), \quad (2.35)$$

where $\bar{n}(\omega_k) = (e^{\beta\omega_k} - 1)^{-1}$ is the Bose-Einstein distribution. Then, we find the transition rates by solving the integral in Eq. (2.25), resulting in

$$\gamma(-\omega) = 2\pi \sum_k |g_k|^2 \bar{n}(\omega_k) \delta(\omega - \omega_k), \quad (2.36)$$

$$\gamma(+\omega) = 2\pi \sum_k |g_k|^2 (\bar{n}(\omega_k) + 1) \delta(\omega - \omega_k). \quad (2.37)$$

Assuming that the infinite harmonic oscillators of the bath have close frequencies, we can convert from discrete to continuum space by transforming the sum into an integral in ω , g_k into a function $g(\omega)$ and including the density function of the bath's states $d(\omega)$. The solution of this new integral gives transition rates that respect the detailed balance Eq. (2.31),

$$\gamma(-\omega) = \Gamma(\omega) \bar{n}(\omega), \quad (2.38)$$

$$\gamma(+\omega) = \Gamma(\omega) (\bar{n}(\omega) + 1), \quad (2.39)$$

where $\Gamma(\omega) = 2\pi d(\omega)|g(\omega)|^2$. Considering a homogeneous bath and the same coupling for all k -modes, Γ becomes a constant. Also, because we have $\pm\omega$, we solve the sum in ω from the Eq. (2.32), obtaining the following Lindblad equation for the Davies maps,

$$\frac{d}{dt}\rho_S(t) = -i[H_S, \rho_S(t)] + \mathcal{D}^-(\rho_S) + \mathcal{D}^+(\rho_S), \quad (2.40)$$

where each dissipator's jump operator is

$$L_\omega^+ = \sqrt{\Gamma(\bar{n}(\omega) + 1)} |n\rangle \langle A | m\rangle |n\rangle \langle m|, \quad (2.41)$$

$$L_\omega^- = \sqrt{\Gamma\bar{n}(\omega)} |m\rangle \langle A^\dagger | n\rangle |m\rangle \langle n|, \quad (2.42)$$

and we used the definition of $A(\omega) = A^\dagger(-\omega)$ in Eq. (2.16) and that $m > n$ for increasing ordering of the Hamiltonian eigenvalues. The physical interpretation of these operators is that L_ω^+ describes the absorption process (system gain energy) and the L_ω^- describes the spontaneous emission process (system loses energy).

After discussing some of the open quantum systems theory, it is always helpful to solve an example. Below, we will solve the thermalisation of one qubit and a single-mode harmonic oscillator, whose solution will be used later in this work's results.

2.2.1.1 Example: one qubit coupled to a thermal bath

One qubit can be described by the Hamiltonian $H_S = -\frac{\omega_0}{2}\sigma^z = -\frac{\omega_0}{2}(|0\rangle\langle 0| - |1\rangle\langle 1|)$. Consider this qubit is coupled to a thermal bath of inverse temperature β and evolve in time according to the Davies maps. Suppose the qubit can absorb energy from the bath as $\sigma^+|0\rangle = |1\rangle$ (where $\sigma^+ = |1\rangle\langle 0|$), or it can dissipate energy to the bath as $\sigma^-|1\rangle = |0\rangle$ (where $\sigma^- = |0\rangle\langle 1|$). Using this description, the Hermitian operator of the interaction effect on the system's subspace is defined as $A = \sigma^+ + \sigma^-$ and its decomposition becomes

$$A(+\omega_0) = |1\rangle\langle 1| A |0\rangle\langle 0| = \sigma^+, \quad (2.43)$$

$$A(-\omega_0) = |0\rangle\langle 0| A |1\rangle\langle 1| = \sigma^-. \quad (2.44)$$

As a result, the jump operators of one qubit thermalization are

$$L_\omega^+ = \sqrt{\Gamma(\bar{n}(\omega) + 1)}\sigma^+, \quad (2.45)$$

$$L_\omega^- = \sqrt{\Gamma\bar{n}(\omega)}\sigma^-. \quad (2.46)$$

2.2.1.2 Example: single-mode harmonic oscillator coupled to a thermal bath

Consider the system is a single-mode harmonic oscillator $H_S = \omega_0 a^\dagger a$ with a and $a^\dagger$ being its annihilation and creation operators, respectively. As we discussed before,

this system is coupled to a thermal bath of temperature β , and the relaxation process is described by Eq. (2.40).

To find out the jump operators of this case, we define $A = a + a^\dagger$ as the Hermitian operator of the interaction acting on the system subspace. To decompose A into $A(\omega)$, we must find out the eigenstates of H_S and the frequencies at which this interaction operator makes transitions in our systems. The eigenstates of the harmonic oscillator are Fock states, $H_S |n\rangle = \lambda_n |n\rangle$ with $\lambda_n = n\omega_0$. For these states, the creation operator raises one energy level ($a^\dagger |n\rangle = \sqrt{n+1} |n+1\rangle$) and the annihilation operator lowers one energy level ($a |n\rangle = \sqrt{n} |n-1\rangle$). Using that the energy difference is given by $\lambda_m - \lambda_n = (m-n)\omega_0$, the possible transition frequencies are $+\omega_0$ or $-\omega_0$. Then, the terms of the decomposition of A according to Eq. (2.16) becomes

$$A(+\omega_0) = \sum_m |m-1\rangle \langle m-1| A |m\rangle \langle m| = a, \quad (2.47)$$

$$A(-\omega_0) = \sum_m |m+1\rangle \langle m+1| A |m\rangle \langle m| = a^\dagger. \quad (2.48)$$

As a result, the jump operators of this thermal relaxation are

$$L_\omega^+ = \sqrt{\Gamma(\bar{n}(\omega) + 1)} a, \quad (2.49)$$

$$L_\omega^- = \sqrt{\Gamma\bar{n}(\omega)} a^\dagger. \quad (2.50)$$

This example is fundamentally related to Gaussian states, which will be introduced in Chap. 5. In Sec. 5.2, we will analytically solve this master equation.

3 QUANTUM THERMODYNAMICS

In the last chapter, we discussed how to describe the time evolution of quantum systems, with open quantum systems dynamics being the most interesting to us. The system evolves in time from a nonequilibrium state to a stationary state (which is a thermal state for Davies maps) through exchanges of energy and information with an environment. All of this was discussed through the lens of quantum mechanics, but it clearly has a strong connection with thermodynamics. In this chapter, we will explore how thermodynamics appears in the context of open quantum systems. The main question we will address in Sec. 3.1 is how classical thermodynamic variables and laws can be extended to quantum theory. This is particularly important because thermodynamics is known as the theory that tells what nature is allowed to do in energy terms, so extending it to the quantum regime can bring new and deeper understanding. Additionally, in Sec. 3.2, we will discuss how information theory and thermodynamics are connected using the geometric interpretation of relaxation processes, which originated thermal kinematics.

3.1 Thermodynamic variables in the quantum regime

In a general sense, thermodynamics is a theory about how energy changes. According to the first law, energy can be transferred by heat and work. These concepts define heat as the energy exchanged for reconfiguration of the system's state and is uncontrollable, while work is the energy that can be exploited and controlled (12). In quantum mechanics, the average energy of any system ρ with Hamiltonian H is defined as $E(\rho) = \text{Tr}[\rho H]$, but its decomposition into heat and work is not unique (51–53). For this reason, in this work, we will use an alternative approach to study the thermodynamics of quantum systems. The entropic approach not only avoids the ambiguities of heat and work definitions, but also allows a connection with information theory.

In Chap. 2, we have already named some processes as reversible or irreversible, which can be explained and quantified by the second law of thermodynamics. This law states that the entropy of an isolated classical system can only increase (irreversible energy exchange) or be conserved (reversible energy exchange). However, there are many different definitions for entropy. In classical thermodynamics, entropy accounts for all the possible microstates Ω given some macroscopic constraints: $S = k_B \ln \Omega$, being k_B the Boltzmann constant (12). In other words, this entropy measures our lack of information about the system's microstate. In addition to that, information theory introduces a convenient interpretation of entropy. Consider a random variable X with probability distribution p_i . To know how much information is contained in the random variable outcomes, we can use the Shannon entropy $H(X) = -\sum_i p_i \log_2 p_i$, bounded by zero when the outcome

is absolutely certain (we have all information), and being maximum when all outcomes are equally likely (we have no information) (54). Despite thermodynamic and Shannon entropies measuring “ignorance”, they are not naturally equivalent, but Shannon entropy can be considered a thermodynamic entropy when the probabilities follow the Boltzmann distribution (3,55).

In the quantum regime, we use density operators instead of probability distributions, which leads us to a generalization of the Shannon entropy, named von Neumann entropy (54),

$$S(\rho) = -\text{Tr}[\rho \ln \rho]. \quad (3.1)$$

The von Neumann entropy is a minimization of the Shannon entropy. This means they are equivalent in the eigenbasis of the density matrix, but the Shannon entropy can become bigger than the von Neumann in other basis that do not diagonalize the density matrix. Also, the von Neumann entropy is zero for pure states because there is no uncertainty in the state preparation, while it’s maximum is $\log d$ for maximally mixed states, where d is the dimension of the Hilbert space (54). More than characterising a state, the von Neumann entropy brings the second law into the quantum regime. In Chap. 2, we discussed that unitary evolutions do not lose information, which allowed us to identify them as reversible. In other words, this means that unitary evolutions preserve the system’s entropy. To show this, we can take the time derivative of the von Neumann entropy as

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\partial S(\rho)}{\partial t} &= -\text{Tr} \left[\frac{\partial \rho}{\partial t} \ln \rho + \rho \frac{\partial}{\partial t} \ln \rho \right] \\ &= -\text{Tr} \left[\frac{\partial \rho}{\partial t} \ln \rho + \frac{\partial \rho}{\partial t} \right] \\ &= i\text{Tr} [[H, \rho] \ln \rho + [H, \rho]] \\ &= 0, \end{aligned} \quad (3.2)$$

where we used that $\frac{\partial}{\partial t} \ln \rho = \rho^{-1} \frac{\partial \rho}{\partial t}$ in the second equality, substituted the Liouville-von Neumann equation (Eq. (2.3)) in the third equality, and used the cyclic property of the trace in the last equality. However, this is not valid for open quantum systems, because information can be exchanged and lost. From the perspective of the total system ($S + E$) under a Markovian dynamics, its entropy can only increase respecting the second law of thermodynamics.

In this context, the balance equation of entropy in irreversible processes is given by

$$\frac{\partial S(\rho)}{\partial t} = \beta \delta Q + \Pi_\rho, \quad (3.3)$$

where the variation of the von Neumann entropy S is equal to the heat flow from the thermal bath ($\beta \delta Q$ that is related to the Clausius theorem) and the entropy production in

the system (Π_ρ) (56,57). From Ref. (58), the definition of heat is $\delta Q = \text{Tr}[\dot{\rho}H]$. Considering that the equilibrium state is a thermal state ($\rho_{\text{eq}} = \rho_{th}$) and that $\ln \rho_{th} = -\beta H - \ln \mathcal{Z}$, we can substitute βH in the heat flow expression as

$$\begin{aligned}\beta\delta Q &= -\text{Tr}[\dot{\rho}(\ln \rho_{\text{eq}} + \ln \mathcal{Z})] \\ &= -\frac{\partial}{\partial t}(\text{Tr}[\rho \ln \rho_{\text{eq}} + \rho \ln \mathcal{Z}]) \\ &= -\frac{\partial}{\partial t}\text{Tr}[\rho \ln \rho_{\text{eq}}],\end{aligned}\tag{3.4}$$

where both ρ_{eq} and $\ln \mathcal{Z}$ are constant in time. Then, we can find that the entropy production rate becomes

$$\begin{aligned}\Pi_\rho &= \frac{\partial S}{\partial t} - \beta\delta Q \\ &= -\frac{\partial}{\partial t}(\text{Tr}[\rho \ln \rho] - \text{Tr}[\rho \ln \rho_{\text{eq}}]) \\ &= -\frac{\partial}{\partial t}D[\rho||\rho_{\text{eq}}]\end{aligned}\tag{3.5}$$

where

$$D[\rho||\sigma] = \text{Tr}[\rho(\ln \rho - \ln \sigma)],\tag{3.6}$$

is the relative entropy, also called Kullback–Leibler divergence, which measures the distinguishability between two states. An interesting interpretation of Eq. (3.5) is that entropy production measures the speed that the system converges to equilibrium (37). So higher entropy production results in faster relaxation. Additionally, it is possible to show that the entropy production can only be greater than zero for irreversible processes, as stated by the second law of thermodynamics (37,57). In the context of Markovian master equations, the relative entropy decreases monotonically as the system evolve in time *, which explains the positivity of the entropy production (59).

Another important aspect about Eq. (3.5) is that the relaxation process depends on how far from equilibrium the system is, because the relative entropy measures how distinguishable the system's state is from the equilibrium state. However, the relative entropy is not a proper measure of distance, because it is not symmetric ($D[P||Q] \neq D[Q||P]$) and do not satisfy triangle inequality, but it can be used to estimate how much useful energy is available in a nonequilibrium state. To see this, we can rewrite the average

* This only occurs for dynamics described by completely positive trace-preserving maps (CPTP), such as the Lindblad master equation. Otherwise, there is no guarantee for the positivity of entropy production (59), as will be discussed in Sec. 4.3.

energy by introducing the equilibrium state $\rho_{eq} = \rho_{th}$ as

$$\begin{aligned}
E(\rho) &= \text{Tr}[\rho H] = -\beta^{-1} \text{Tr}[\rho \ln e^{-\beta H}] \\
&= -\beta^{-1} \text{Tr} \left[\rho \ln \frac{e^{-\beta H}}{\mathcal{Z}} + \rho \ln \mathcal{Z} \right] \\
&= -\beta^{-1} \text{Tr}[\rho \ln \rho_{eq}] - \beta^{-1} \ln \mathcal{Z} + \beta^{-1} S(\rho) - \beta^{-1} S(\rho) \\
&= \beta^{-1} D[\rho || \rho_{eq}] + \beta^{-1} S(\rho) + F_{eq},
\end{aligned} \tag{3.7}$$

where $F_{eq} = -\beta^{-1} \ln \mathcal{Z}$ is the equilibrium free energy (20). The nonequilibrium free energy $F_{neq}(\rho) = E(\rho) - \beta^{-1} S(\rho)$ is an extension of the Helmholtz free energy (3), and using Eq. (3.7) it can be written as

$$F_{neq}(\rho) = \beta^{-1} D[\rho || \rho_{eq}] + F_{eq}. \tag{3.8}$$

This expression shows that the relative entropy is directly related to the amount of energy a state has because it is far from equilibrium. It is interesting to observe that the nonequilibrium free energy is related to the entropy production rate as $\Pi_\rho = -\beta \frac{\partial}{\partial t} F_{neq}$. Also, this energetic interpretation can also be used to find that the maximum amount of energy that could be extracted from the system (3, 55, 60),

$$W_{\max}(\rho) = \Delta F = F_{neq}(\rho) - F_{eq}. \tag{3.9}$$

However, this equality is only satisfied when the final state after work extraction is a thermal state, which is a consequence of thermal states having the minimum possible energy (61). Thermal states are just one type of what we call passive states (represented as π), which are defined as states from which no work can be extracted via cyclic unitary operations,

$$\text{Tr}[H\pi] \leq \text{Tr}[HU\pi U^\dagger] \tag{3.10}$$

for every unitary U (40). From the definition of passivity, we can also define a quantity called ergotropy, which is the maximum work extracted via cyclic unitary operations,

$$\mathcal{E}(\rho) = E(\rho) - E(\pi), \tag{3.11}$$

where the energy of the passive state is $E(\pi) = \min_U \text{Tr}[HU\rho U^\dagger]$ (24, 60). Because we are considering unitary operations, the von Neumann entropy is conserved ($S(\rho) = S(\pi)$) and we can use the nonequilibrium free energy to rewrite the ergotropy as $\mathcal{E}(\rho) = F_{neq}(\rho) - F_{neq}(\pi)$ (62). Knowing that the thermal state have the minimum energy, which means $E(\pi) \geq E(\rho_{th})$, the ergotropy is upper bounded as $\mathcal{E}(\rho) \leq W_{\max}$ with equality for $\pi = \rho_{th}$ (40, 61, 62). It is important to emphasize that the passive state is always a thermal state for two level and Gaussian systems [†].

[†] Other systems can also have their passive states to be thermal states. One example is shown in Ref. (63) and Ref. (64)

Ergotropy can also be used to understand entropy production. To see this, we can rewrite Eq. (3.11) using the definition of energy in Eq. (3.7) as

$$\begin{aligned}\mathcal{E}(\rho) &= \beta^{-1}D[\rho||\rho_{eq}] + \beta^{-1}S(\rho) + F_{eq} - \beta^{-1}D[\pi||\rho_{eq}] - \beta^{-1}S(\pi) - F_{eq} \\ &= \beta^{-1}(D[\rho||\rho_{eq}] - D[\pi||\rho_{eq}]).\end{aligned}\tag{3.12}$$

Now, by making the time derivative of this expression for ergotropy, we can find that

$$\Pi_\rho = \Pi_\pi - \beta^{-1}\dot{\mathcal{E}}(\rho),\tag{3.13}$$

which means the entropy production can be separated into a passive contribution and an ergotropic contribution where $\dot{\mathcal{E}}(\rho)$ is called ergotropic loss rate (24, 65). A better discussion of this separation is done in Sec. 5.2, where it will be useful for the heating-cooling asymmetry in Gaussian states.

3.2 Thermal Kinematics

In previous sections of this chapter, we discussed how thermodynamic and informational quantities behave during relaxation processes. Furthermore, we can study relaxation processes through another approach that is a combination of stochastic thermodynamics and informational geometry, named thermal kinematics (14). In this approach, each physical state is represented as a point in a Riemann space, that is a curve surface also called statistical manifold (35, 66). As a result, the time evolution of states become trajectories in this manifold, enabling the definition of quantities with analogous interpretation from kinematics, such as length and velocity (35, 36). Initially, thermal kinematics was originated to discuss far-from-equilibrium relaxation processes of classical systems (14), and later, it was extended to the quantum regime (26). This approach allow us to identify asymmetric relaxation processes and will be essential in our study of the heating-cooling asymmetry.

For convenience, we begin with the discussion of the classical case. The central piece for connecting thermodynamics with information geometry is a quantity called Fisher information, that measures how much information we gain about a system by varying its parameters (67, 68). According to Chentsov's theorem (69), the Fisher information is the unique Riemannian metric in this statistical manifold (35, 66, 70). Given that a classical system can be described by the probability distribution $P(x, \theta)$ of being in state x with the parameter θ , the classical Fisher information is

$$\mathcal{I}_c(\theta) = \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} \frac{(d_\theta P(x, \theta))^2}{P(x, \theta)} dx,\tag{3.14}$$

where d_θ is the derivative with respect to θ . For simplicity and purposes of this work, we are considering just a single parameter. To give a geometrical interpretation for the

Fisher information, we can use that each thermodynamic state associated with the $P(x, \theta)$ is a point in a statistical manifold. As a result, if we have distinguishable states, they are different points in this statistical space, enabling the definition of a statistical distance between them (36,66). As previously discussed in Sec. 3.1, one measure of distinguishability is the relative entropy, that in term of probability distributions have the form

$$D[F(x)||Q(x)] = \int dx F(x) \ln \left(\frac{F(x)}{Q(x)} \right). \quad (3.15)$$

Remembering that the relative entropy is asymmetric, to keep consistency throughout this work, we will use that $Q(x)$ is related to a later time than $F(x)$. That said, consider an initial state with probability distribution $P(x, \theta)$ that evolve in an infinitesimal time $d\theta$ becoming $P(x, \theta + d\theta)$. Because they are distinct probability distributions, it means they are separated by a infinitesimal distance ds in the statistical manifold. To distinguish the probabilities distributions, we can use the relative entropy and make a second order Taylor expansion of $P(x, \theta + d\theta)$ to obtain

$$\begin{aligned} D[P(x, \theta + d\theta)||P(x, \theta)] &= \int dx P(x, \theta + d\theta) \ln \left(\frac{P(x, \theta + d\theta)}{P(x, \theta)} \right) \\ &= \int dx [P(x, \theta) + \partial_\theta P(x, \theta) d\theta + \frac{1}{2} \partial_\theta^2 P(x, \theta) d\theta^2 + \mathcal{O}(d\theta^3)] \\ &\quad \times \left[\frac{\partial_\theta P(x, \theta)}{P(x, \theta)} d\theta + \frac{1}{2} \frac{\partial_\theta^2 P(x, \theta)}{P(x, \theta)} d\theta^2 - \frac{1}{2} \frac{(\partial_\theta P(x, \theta) d\theta)^2}{P(x, \theta)^2} + \mathcal{O}(d\theta^3) \right] \\ &= \int dx \left[\partial_\theta P(x, \theta) d\theta + \frac{1}{2} \partial_\theta^2 P(x, \theta) d\theta^2 + \frac{1}{2} \frac{(\partial_\theta P(x, \theta) d\theta)^2}{P(x, \theta)} + \mathcal{O}(d\theta^3) \right] \\ &= \frac{1}{2} \int dx \frac{(\partial_\theta P(x, \theta) d\theta)^2}{P(x, \theta)} + \mathcal{O}(d\theta^3) \\ &= \frac{1}{2} \mathcal{I}_c(\theta) d\theta^2 + \mathcal{O}(d\theta^3), \end{aligned} \quad (3.16)$$

where we used $\ln(1+x) = x - \frac{1}{2}x^2 + \mathcal{O}(x^3)$ in the second equality and $\int dx P(x, \theta) = 1$ in the fourth equality (14). The Chentsov's theorem allow us to use $D[P(x, \theta + d\theta)||P(x, \theta)] \approx ds^2$ to find the statistical line element as $ds = \sqrt{\mathcal{I}(\theta)} d\theta$. In the context of thermodynamics, the parameter of interest in relaxation processes is time ($\theta = t$), which allow us to define the instantaneous speed (also called statistical velocity) of the relaxation process as

$$v_c(t) = \sqrt{\mathcal{I}(t)}, \quad (3.17)$$

and the statistical length between the two states as

$$\mathcal{L}_c(t) = \int_0^t v_c(\tau) d\tau = \int_0^t \sqrt{\mathcal{I}_c(\tau)} d\tau. \quad (3.18)$$

Additionally, we can define another quantity that is the degree of completion, which measures how much of the total trajectory until time t_f the system has completed at time

t_s ,

$$\varphi_c(t_s) = \frac{\mathcal{L}_c(t_s)}{\mathcal{L}_c(t_f)}, \quad (3.19)$$

being $\varphi_c \in [0, 1]$. These three quantities describes the thermal kinematic for classical systems, being a important to understand relaxation processes in terms of thermodynamic trajectories.

However, quantum systems are described by density matrices instead of probability distributions, being necessary some adaptations in thermal kinematics derivation. First, we need to use the quantum Fisher information (QFI) instead of the definition in Eq. (3.14). The QFI can be defined as

$$\mathcal{I}_Q(\rho(t)) = 2 \sum_{n,m} \frac{|\langle \psi_n | \partial_t \rho(t) | \psi_m \rangle|^2}{\lambda_n + \lambda_m}, \quad (3.20)$$

where λ_k and $|\psi_k\rangle$ are, respectively, the k th eigenvalue and eigenvector of the density matrix $\rho(t)$ (68,71). Nevertheless, this expression do not naturally appears from expanding the relative entropy, but it can be found using other distinguishability measure. The Bures distance measures the statistical distance between two density matrices,

$$[D_B(\rho, \sigma)]^2 = 2[1 - F(\rho, \sigma)], \quad (3.21)$$

where $F(\rho, \sigma) = \text{Tr} \sqrt{\sqrt{\rho} \sigma \sqrt{\rho}}$ is the fidelity, that measures how similar two density matrices are. Similar to the relative entropy case, we make a Taylor expansion of $\rho(t + dt)$ up to the second order and after some algebra we find (68)

$$ds^2 = [D_B(\rho(t), \rho(t + dt))]^2 = \frac{1}{4} \mathcal{I}_Q(\rho(t)) dt^2 + \mathcal{O}(dt^3). \quad (3.22)$$

From this equation, we can redefine the thermal kinematics variables as

$$v(t) = \frac{1}{2} \sqrt{\mathcal{I}_Q(\rho(t))}, \quad (3.23)$$

$$\mathcal{L}(t) = \frac{1}{2} \int_0^t \sqrt{\mathcal{I}_Q(\rho(\tau))} d\tau, \quad (3.24)$$

$$\varphi(t_s) = \frac{\mathcal{L}(t_s)}{\mathcal{L}(t_f)}. \quad (3.25)$$

With this section, we have defined all the necessary concepts and quantities that will be used for the results. In next section, we explore how the heating-cooling asymmetry behave in a two-interaction qubits model.

4 HEATING-COOLING ASYMMETRY: DISCRETE CASE

Experiments showed that heating is faster than cooling in Langevin systems (14) and theoretical studies showed that this asymmetry also exists in quantum systems (26). However, understanding how quantum resources affect heating-cooling asymmetry is still an open question. In this chapter, we will investigate quantum coherence and entanglement effects on the asymmetry. For that, we consider two interacting qubits coupled to a global bosonic bath. However, before we discuss the results of this work, it is important to present the quantum correlations we will investigate, which is done in Sec. 4.1. Then, in Sec. 4.2, we examine characteristics of the two-interacting-qubits model and discuss its thermalization process. After this introduction, we will be able to analyse our results in Sec. 4.3.

4.1 Quantum Coherence and Entanglement

One of the basic properties of quantum systems is the possibility of being in a superposition state, for example $|\psi\rangle = a|0\rangle + b|1\rangle$, where $|0\rangle = (1, 0)^T$ and $|1\rangle = (0, 1)^T$ form the computational basis. In the density matrix form, this state becomes

$$\rho = \begin{bmatrix} |a|^2 & ab^* \\ a^*b & |b|^2 \end{bmatrix}, \quad (4.1)$$

where the off-diagonal elements represent the coherences of the state. In other words, we call coherent states the ones with off-diagonal elements in their density matrices, while the incoherent states are represented by diagonal density matrices (72, 73). However, coherence is a basis-dependent quantity, which implies that we must fix one basis to define it. Usually, this reference basis is selected according to the physical problem, for example, the energy eigenbasis is the most used in studies of thermodynamic processes. It is important to emphasize that the off-diagonal elements cannot assume arbitrary values, because the positive semi-definite condition of the density matrix must be preserved, which implies that

$$|\rho_{ij}|^2 \leq \rho_{ii}\rho_{jj}, \quad (4.2)$$

where the subindexes identify the density matrix element.

There are different ways to measure the coherence of a state, with the relative entropy of coherence being one of them. It is defined as

$$C_R(\rho) = \min_{\sigma \in I} D[\rho||\sigma] = S(\rho_d) - S(\rho), \quad (4.3)$$

that is a minimization over all the set of incoherent states I of the relative entropy between the state we want to measure ρ and the incoherent state σ (72, 73). The last

equality is obtained by using that we can separate any density matrix into a diagonal part $\rho_d = \sum_i |i\rangle \langle i| \rho |i\rangle \langle i|$ and a coherent part, which allow us to rewrite the relative entropy in terms of the von Neumann entropy as $D[\rho||\sigma] = S(\rho_d) - S(\rho) + D[\rho_d||\sigma]$. The minimization over σ of this expression, means that $\rho_d = \sigma$. Using this measure, we can prove that the maximally coherent state have maximum values of the off-diagonal elements, resulting in the pure state $|\psi_{MCS}\rangle = d^{-1} \sum_{i=0}^d |i\rangle$ that has $C_R(\rho) = \log d$ (73).

Coherence has non-trivial consequences in thermodynamic processes and, for this reason, investigating its effects in the heating-cooling asymmetry can be interesting. One example of how coherence affects thermodynamics is that coherence in the energy basis can increase the ergotropy of the state, which means it can be exploited as a resource for work extraction (74). However, there are cases where coherence can be detrimental for physical processes, such as in some stages of quantum battery operations (40) and in thermal relaxation processes (20).

When we have two or more quantum systems, they can share information through classical and quantum correlations. There are a variety of quantum correlations that can be organised as a hierarchy, being coherence the necessary condition for all of them (42). In this work, we will only study the bipartite entanglement, that is the entanglement between two parts. Consider a composite system whose global state can be written as a product state, $|\psi\rangle_{AB} = |\alpha\rangle_A \otimes |\beta\rangle_B$. This means that the subsystems A and B are separable. When we cannot write the global state as a product state, the system is said to be entangled (42). In the density matrices formulation, separable states can be decomposed into local states,

$$\rho = \sum_i p_i \rho_i^A \otimes \rho_i^B. \quad (4.4)$$

As a consequence, the state is entangled if the decomposition in Eq. (4.4) is not possible (42). It is interesting that the state described in Eq. (4.4) can have classical correlations despite not being entangled. In this respect, a usual measure of correlations is the mutual information defined as

$$\mathcal{M}(\rho_{AB}) = S(\rho_A) + S(\rho_B) - S(\rho_{AB}), \quad (4.5)$$

where $S(\rho)$ is the von Neumann entropy, ρ_A and ρ_B are parts of the global state ρ_{AB} (54). This quantity indicates how much information is shared through both classical and quantum correlations, meaning it cannot be used alone as a signature of quantumness.

In this work, we are only interested in using bipartite entanglement, for which we can use a specific quantifier, namely entanglement of formation (EoF), which for two qubits can be written as

$$E_f(\rho) = H\left(\frac{1 + \sqrt{1 - C(\rho)^2}}{2}\right), \quad (4.6)$$

where $H(x) = -x \log_2(x) - (1-x) \log_2(1-x)$ is the binary entropy function and

$$C(\rho) = \max\{0, \lambda_1 - \lambda_2 - \lambda_3 - \lambda_4\}, \quad (4.7)$$

is the concurrence for the case of two qubits* with $\lambda_i > \lambda_j$ for $i < j$ being the square root of the eigenvalues of the matrix $R = \rho \tilde{\rho}$. To find R , first we take complex conjugation of each matrix element obtaining ρ^* and then we compute the time-reversed matrix $\tilde{\rho} = (\sigma_y \otimes \sigma_y) \rho^* (\sigma_y \otimes \sigma_y)$ (75). Given that a zero concurrence represents separable states and that concurrence equal to one occurs for maximally entangled states, we use concurrence to find out if a state is entangled is enough, making unnecessary further calculations from EoF in this case.

Entanglement is widely used as a quantum resource in communication and computation (76), and it can also bring advantages in thermodynamic processes. For example, refrigerators can make entangled systems reach lower temperatures than non-correlated states (77). Another example is that entanglement can help extract more work in quantum batteries (61).

There are other methods to quantify entanglement and coherence in quantum systems, but the presented discussion is enough for this work. The reader can find a deeper discussion on quantum correlation in Refs. (42, 72). In the next section, we will explain the thermal relaxation of the two interacting qubits model and will present our results in Sec. 4.3.

4.2 Thermal Relaxation of Two Interacting Qubits

The two-interaction-qubit model we will use can be described by

$$H_S = -\frac{\omega_0}{2} \sigma_1^z - \frac{\omega_0}{2} \sigma_2^z + J[\sigma_1^+ \sigma_2^- + \sigma_1^- \sigma_2^+], \quad (4.8)$$

where $\sigma_i^+ = |1\rangle \langle 0|$, $\sigma_i^- = |0\rangle \langle 1|$, and σ_i^z is the Pauli matrix in z acting on qubit i . We will consider that both qubits have the same energy gap $\frac{\omega_0}{2}$. The qubits can exchange energy and information through the XX-interaction model with strength J (75, 78). Depending on the value of J , the final state of the dynamics can have more coherence and even stronger correlations, such as entanglement, which will be discussed later in this section.

To study the heating-cooling asymmetry with this model, we will consider that one qubit is initially at a colder temperature T_c and the other qubit is initially at a hotter temperature T_h , as illustrated in Fig. 2. Because the bath is at an intermediate temperature T_w , the colder qubit will heat up and the hotter qubit will cool down. To genuinely study heating and cooling, it is important to ensure each qubit is in a thermal state so we can define a physical temperature to it. If we add off-diagonal elements in each

* The general definition can be found in Ref. (42)

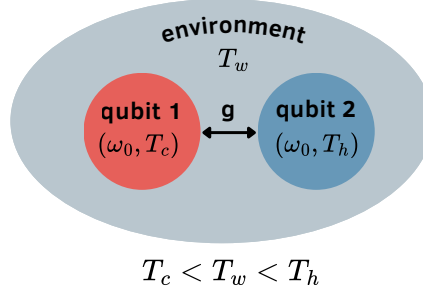


Figure 2 – Illustration of two interacting qubits in contact with a global bath. The red qubit is at a colder temperature T_c and will heat up to the bath's temperature T_w . The blue qubit is at a hotter temperature T_h and will cool down to the bath's temperature T_w . The qubits can interact with a strength J .

Source: By the author

qubit's density matrix, that is, coherence, they would not be thermal states and the terms “heating” and “cooling” become inaccurate. Therefore, to study the effects of coherence in heating-cooling asymmetry with this model, we will use an initial X-state

$$\rho = \rho_c \otimes \rho_h + \chi, \quad (4.9)$$

where ρ_c and ρ_h are the thermal states of the cold and hot qubits, respectively, and χ is a matrix defined in the computational basis as

$$\chi = e |01\rangle \langle 10| + e^* |10\rangle \langle 01| + f |00\rangle \langle 11| + f^* |11\rangle \langle 00|, \quad (4.10)$$

which means it contains the coherences of the global state. These coherences only exist for the global state because $\text{Tr}_c[\chi] = \text{Tr}_h[\chi] = 0$. This particular format is important because it allows us to include coherences while keeping thermal local states for each qubit, which means that $\text{Tr}_c[\rho] = \rho_h$ and $\text{Tr}_h[\rho] = \rho_c$.

As discussed in Sec. 4.1, the positivity of every density matrix imposes the constraint shown in Eq. (4.2) on the off-diagonal elements. In our case, the matrix form of the initial density matrix of our state is

$$\rho = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{e^{\omega_0(\beta_c + \beta_h)/2}}{\mathcal{Z}_c \mathcal{Z}_h} & 0 & 0 & f \\ 0 & \frac{e^{\omega_0(\beta_c - \beta_h)/2}}{\mathcal{Z}_c \mathcal{Z}_h} & e & 0 \\ 0 & e^* & \frac{e^{-\omega_0(\beta_c - \beta_h)/2}}{\mathcal{Z}_c \mathcal{Z}_h} & 0 \\ f^* & 0 & 0 & \frac{e^{-\omega_0(\beta_c + \beta_h)/2}}{\mathcal{Z}_c \mathcal{Z}_h} \end{bmatrix}, \quad (4.11)$$

where $\beta_i = 1/T_i$ and the partition function is $\mathcal{Z}_i = 2 \cosh(\beta_i \omega_0/2)$ with $i = (c, h)$. After its diagonalization, we obtain that the maximum value for $|e|$ and $|f|$ is $1/\mathcal{Z}_c \mathcal{Z}_h$. Even though this initial state can have coherence, it will never be initially entangled according to the requirements in Ref. (79), because of this limitation for the off-diagonal elements.

To study the thermal relaxation of this model and initial state, we will use the Davies maps presented in Sec. 2.2.1. The explicit form of the jump operators used are presented in Appx. B. As we previously discussed, the steady state of this dynamics is always a thermal state in the Hamiltonian eigenbasis, but, in the computational basis, it becomes

$$\begin{aligned}\rho_{ss}^G &= \frac{e^{-\beta_w H_S}}{\mathcal{Z}_S} \\ &= \frac{1}{\mathcal{Z}_S} \begin{bmatrix} e^{\beta_w \omega_0} & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & \cosh(\beta_w \omega_0) & -\sinh(\beta_w J) & 0 \\ 0 & -\sinh(\beta_w J) & \cosh(\beta_w \omega_0) & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & e^{-\beta_w \omega_0} \end{bmatrix},\end{aligned}\quad (4.12)$$

where $\mathcal{Z}_S = 2(\cosh(\beta_w \omega_0) + \cosh(\beta_w J))$ is the partition function with $\beta_w = 1/T_w$ and H_S being the Hamiltonian from Eq. (4.8). Now that we know the global steady state, we go back to the discussion about the emergence of entanglement due to the interaction of the qubits. We can use entanglement of formation (defined in Eq. (4.6)) to identify for which regime of the parameter J the steady state will be entangled. First, we need to compute the concurrence (defined in Eq. (4.7)) for this state. In Appx. A, we find that the square root of the eigenvalues of R (defined in Sec. 4.1) are in decreasing order $\lambda_1 = e^{\beta_w J}/\mathcal{Z}_S$, $\lambda_2 = \lambda_3 = 1/\mathcal{Z}_S$, and $\lambda_4 = e^{-\beta_w J}/\mathcal{Z}_S$. Fig. 3 show that concurrence increases for $J > 0.8814$, resulting in an increase of the entanglement of formation, meaning our qubits are entangled. Additionally, it is also possible to compute the mutual information defined in Eq. (4.5) and shown the right plot of Fig. 3. We see that the mutual information increases

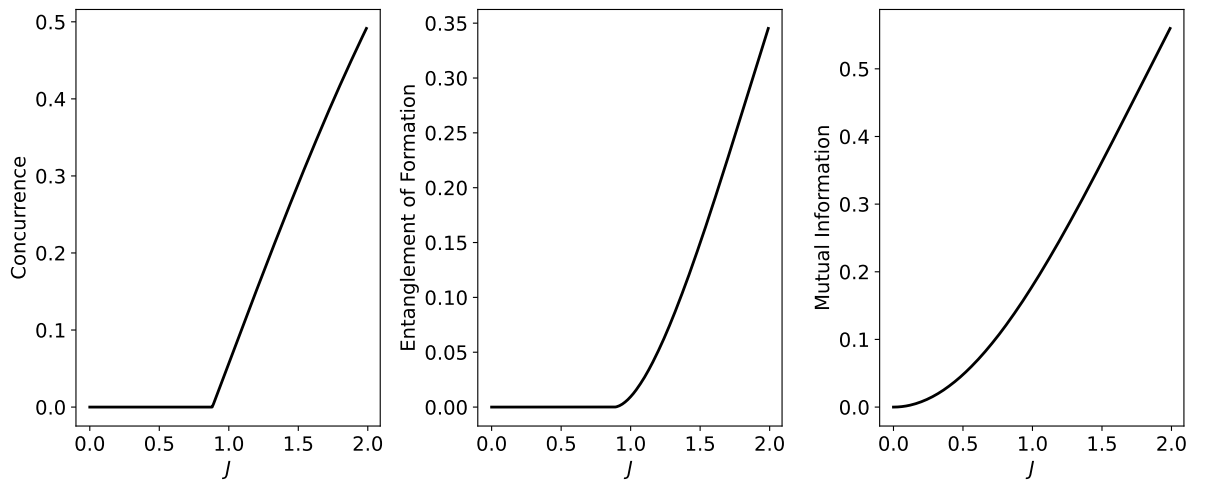


Figure 3 – Quantifiers of correlations in the global thermal state (Eq. (4.12)) caused by the qubits' interaction. Concurrence (left), entanglement of formation (middle), and mutual information as a function of the interaction parameter J (right).

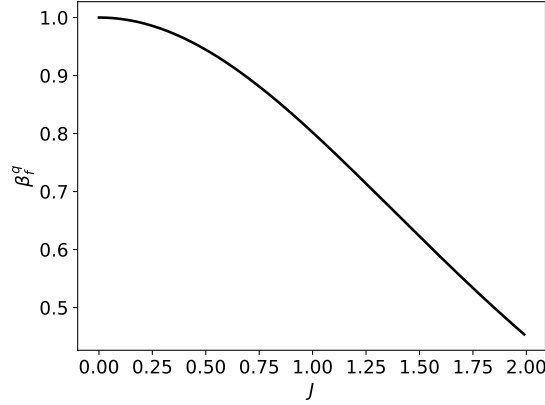


Figure 4 – Final temperature of the qubits (Eq. (4.14)) as a function of the interaction parameter J .

Source: By the author

for higher J , but it is bigger than zero before entanglement of formation, which means that other types of correlations emerge even for weak interaction between the qubits.

The presence of correlations between the qubits affects their local steady states. When we trace out one of the qubits from the global steady state (Eq. (4.12)), we find the local steady state

$$\rho_{ss}^q = \frac{1}{\mathcal{Z}_q} \begin{bmatrix} e^{\beta_w \omega_0} + \cosh(\beta_w J) & 0 \\ 0 & e^{-\beta_w \omega_0} + \cosh(\beta_w J) \end{bmatrix}, \quad (4.13)$$

where $\mathcal{Z}_q = 2 \cosh(\beta_f \omega_0) + 2 \cosh(\beta_f J)$. Because in a global bath both qubits equilibrate to the same local temperature, it makes no difference which one we trace out. From the steady state of the qubit, we can compute its local temperature, obtaining

$$\beta_f^q = \frac{1}{T_f^q} = \frac{1}{\omega_0} \ln \left(\frac{e^{\beta_w \omega_0} + \cosh(\beta_w J)}{e^{-\beta_w \omega_0} + \cosh(\beta_w J)} \right), \quad (4.14)$$

which is smaller than the bath's temperature for $J > 0$, as shown in Fig. 4. This occurs because the interaction between the qubits generates correlations (as signalled by the mutual information), tracing out one of them erases part of the information, which changes the qubit's populations, resulting in a different local temperature. However, it must be emphasised that the global system thermalises to the bath's temperature, as we calculated in Eq. (4.12).

Now that we have discussed the interaction model between the qubits and the structure of the initial and final states, we can analyse how the heating-cooling asymmetry behaves for our system. In the next section, we present our results and how we obtained them.

4.3 Asymmetry for Two Interacting Qubits

Before solving the dynamics for our model and analysing the asymmetry, it is important to guarantee we are making a fair comparison between heating and cooling. In this sense, we must choose initial states for the qubits that are thermodynamically equivalent, which is not the same as having equidistant initial temperatures from the equilibrium temperature. Given that the asymmetry only appears for far-from-equilibrium systems, the criteria we will use for thermodynamic equivalence will be the nonequilibrium free energy defined by Eq. (3.8). As we discussed in Sec. 3.1, states with the same nonequilibrium free energy also have the same relative entropy from equilibrium. So, we choose a colder (ρ_c) and hotter (ρ_h) initial states for the qubits that have the same relative entropy from their local steady state ρ_{ss}^q (given by Eq. (4.13)),

$$D[\rho_c || \rho_{ss}^q] = D[\rho_h || \rho_{ss}^q] = D_0, \quad (4.15)$$

where we use the relative entropy definition from Eq. (3.6). This equality can be numerically solved by varying the initial temperature of the qubit's thermal state and computing its relative entropy from ρ_{ss}^q . This will result in the orange curve in Fig. 5, where the orange dot indicates the equilibrium state with inverse temperature β_f^q . Then, we can find the points where this orange curve is equal to the initial relative entropy D_0 (black line). Using that the population of the ground state, $\langle 0 | \rho | 0 \rangle = \exp(\omega_0/2T_i)/2 \cosh(\omega_0/2T_i)$ with $i = (c, h)$, we can find the initial cold (blue dot) and hot (red dot) temperatures that the qubits must have to be thermodynamically equivalent.

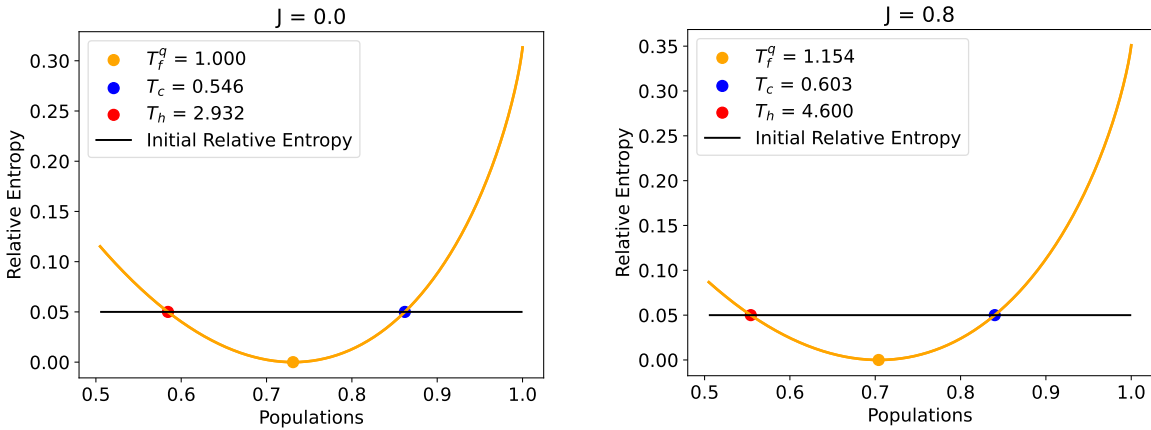


Figure 5 – Relative entropy of a thermal qubit and its equilibrium state as a function of its ground state population. The orange curve is obtained by varying the qubit's temperature and the orange dot corresponds to the equilibrium state. The black line indicates the chosen initial relative entropy that both hot (red dot) and cold (blue dot) qubits must have. The left plot is the no-interaction case, while the right plot shows the interaction case with $J = 0.8$.

Source: By the author

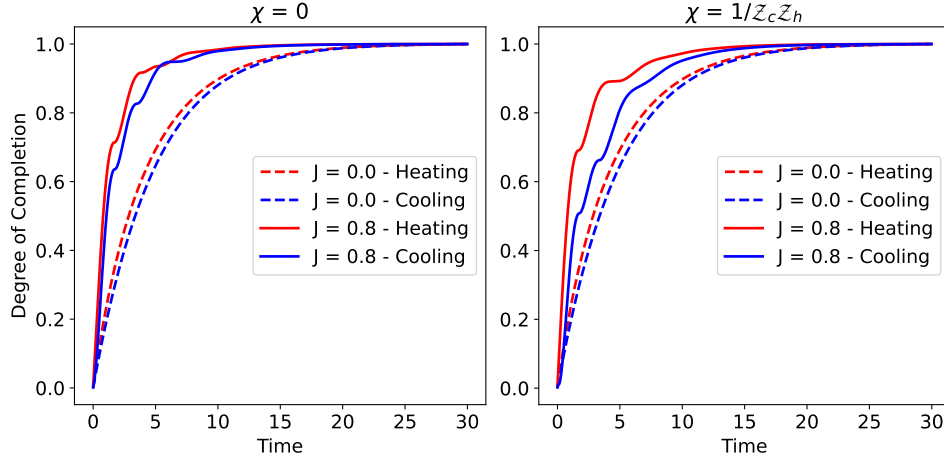


Figure 6 – Degree of completion for XX-model. Each line corresponds to cooling (blue) or heating (red) processes with (solid) or without (dashed) interaction between qubits.

Source: By the author

With this initialisation of our system, we can analyse the heating and cooling asymmetry. In the next figures, heating and cooling are represented in red and blue, respectively. Dashed lines indicate the non-interaction case ($J = 0$), while solid lines represent the interaction case without entanglement ($J = 0.8$). The degree of completion (defined by Eq. (3.25)) is shown in Fig. 6 for the case without initial coherence (left) and the case with maximum initial coherence (right). When comparing heating and cooling, the red lines are above their corresponding blue lines, so we conclude that heating is faster than cooling. Using this same idea, we see that the interaction between qubits allows a faster relaxation. Furthermore, only for the interaction case, the initial coherence seems to affect the intermediary dynamics by delaying cooling, which increases the asymmetry while keeping the total relaxation time unchanged. These same observations can also be obtained from the statistical velocity (defined by Eq. (3.23)) shown in Fig. 7. In addition to this, note that the interaction case has many oscillations in both degree of completion and statistical velocity, which will be discussed later. Another behaviour that we observe is that the heating and cooling curves becomes more separated for the interaction case with maximum initial coherence, which means there is an increase in the asymmetry.

Previous works have stated that heating is faster than cooling because it has higher entropy production (14,37). As we noticed that the interaction case relaxes faster than the no-interaction case, we could also try to use the argument that the faster process has higher entropy production. In Fig. 8, we show the entropy production rate (defined in Eq. (3.5)) as a function of time. First, heating without interaction has higher entropy production than cooling, which agrees with previous works (14,37). However, the interaction case has many oscillations, and heating entropy production is not always bigger than cooling entropy production. Additionally, the entropy production of the interaction case becomes negative

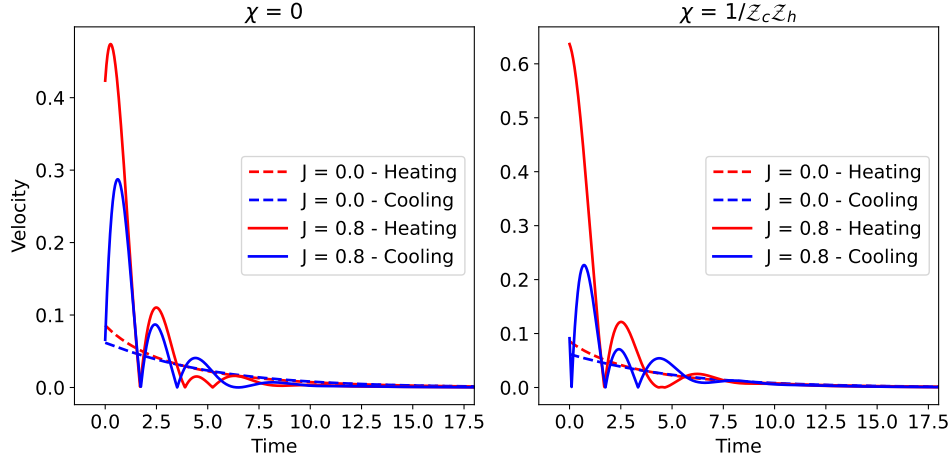


Figure 7 – Statistical velocity for XX-model. Each line corresponds to cooling (blue) or heating (red) processes with (solid) or without (dashed) interaction between qubits.

Source: By the author

for some time intervals. If we recall that entropy is related to the lack of information, negative entropy production means the system is gaining information instead of losing it to the environment, which may seem like a violation of the second law of thermodynamics. In our model, we can understand this behaviour as a consequence of erasing part of the information shared through correlations between the qubits when tracing out one of them, which can explain why local negative entropy production does not violate the second law. Mathematically, we can see this by taking the time derivative of the mutual information defined in Eq. (4.5) and using that $\frac{d}{dt}S(\rho) = -\Pi_\rho + \text{Tr}[\dot{\rho} \ln \rho_{\text{eq}}]$ to find that

$$\Pi_\rho = \Pi_{\rho_c} + \Pi_{\rho_h} - \frac{d}{dt}\mathcal{M}(\rho) - \text{Tr}[\dot{\rho}_c \ln \rho_{ss}^q] - \text{Tr}[\dot{\rho}_h \ln \rho_{ss}^q] + \text{Tr}[\dot{\rho} \ln \rho_{ss}]. \quad (4.16)$$

This expression shows that the entropy production of the global state has contributions from correlations in addition to the subsystems' entropy productions and other terms. Because these correlations are faster than the dissipation to the environment, the Born-Markov approximations are not always valid for the dynamics of the subsystem. Previous studies such as Refs. (? , 80, 81) have shown that information backflow indicates that the subsystems have a non-Markovian dynamics even though the global state evolution is still Markovian as described in Chap. 2 (82). As a result, it is valid to interpretate the negative entropy production as a witness of non-Markovianity. Combining this discussion with our results, we can conclude that non-Markovianity in the interaction case may have helped the system to relax faster.

Up to this point, we have only discussed an interaction case that do not generate entanglement between the qubits. According to Fig. 3, we can increase J to obtain a final entangled state for the qubits. Choosing $J = 1.6$, Fig. 9 show that the presence of

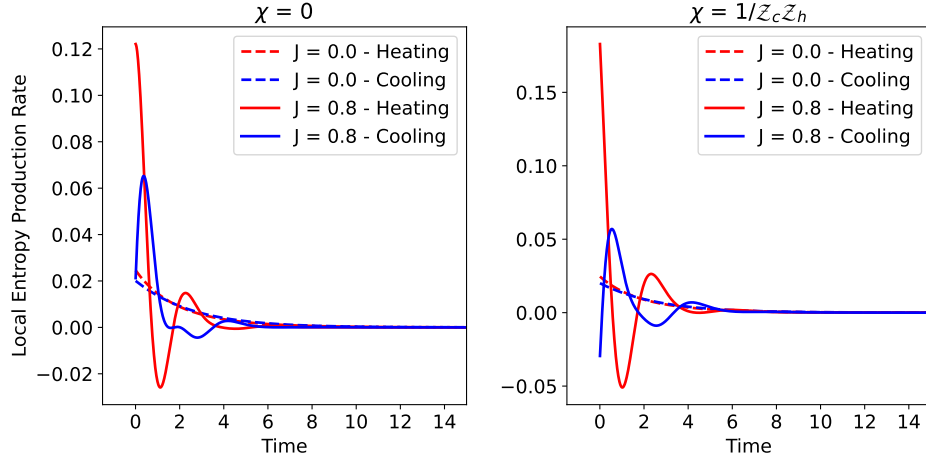


Figure 8 – Entropy production rate for the XX-model. Each line corresponds to cooling (blue) or heating (red) processes with (solid) or without (dashed) interaction between qubits.

Source: By the author

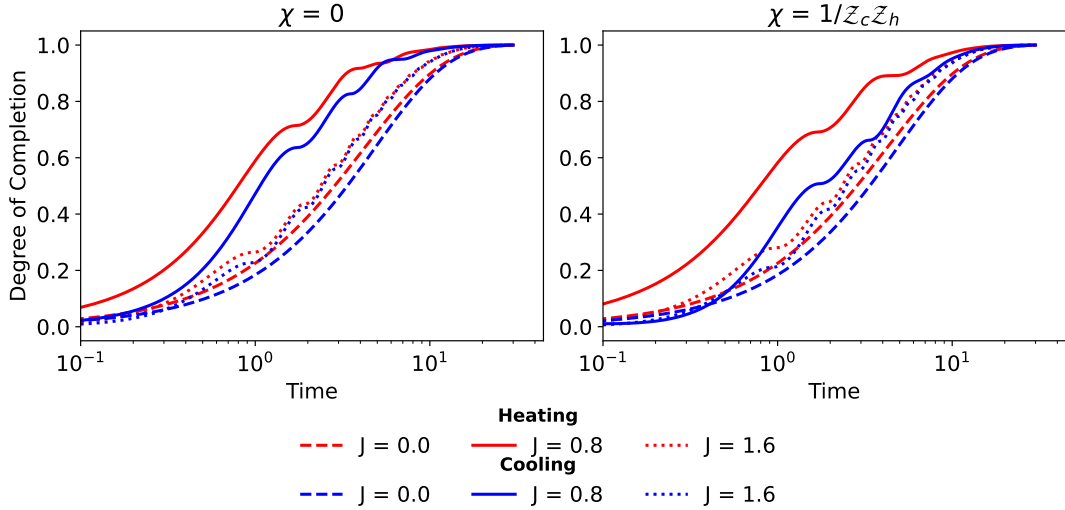


Figure 9 – Degree of completion for heating (red) and cooling (blue) states with zero (left) or maximum (right) initial coherence. The interaction parameters used are $J = 0$ (dashed), $J = 0.8$ (solid), and $J = 1.6$ (dotted).

Source: By the author

entanglement (dotted lines) reduces the heating-cooling asymmetry making the curves closer. Again, the initial coherence do not change the overall thermalisation for $J = 1.6$. When compared to our previous interaction case without entanglement (solid lines), we notice that the thermal relaxation becomes slower, but it is still faster than the non-interacting case (dashed lines). Therefore, the relation between the acceleration of thermal relaxation and the increase of J it is not straightforward.

5 HEATING-COOLING ASYMMETRY: CONTINUOUS-VARIABLE CASE

Continuous-variable (CV) systems are described by observables with continuous spectra, typically associated with infinite-dimensional Hilbert spaces. An important subclass of CV systems are Gaussian states and operations, as they have been widely applied in communication protocols, quantum field theory, solid state physics, and open quantum systems (42). In Sec. 5.1, we present the basic theory of Gaussian systems and the main references for this section are (42,83). In this work, we will investigate the heating-cooling asymmetry for the three cases of Gaussian states: thermal states (Sec. 5.3), displaced states (Sec. 5.4), and squeezed states (Sec. 5.5). As before, we will use the thermal kinematics approach to understand the asymmetry, however, we will use the Wigner-Fisher information instead of the quantum Fisher information, which will result in some small changes on the thermal kinematics variables, which will be discussed in Sec. 5.2

5.1 Gaussian States

An important example of CV systems is the quantised electromagnetic field, whose modes behave as independent harmonic oscillators. Despite being described by continuous variables, the energy of each mode is quantised in equally spaced levels, with transitions occurring through the absorption or emission of energy quanta known as photons. For simplicity, let us consider an electromagnetic field inside an optical cavity, where only N relevant modes are taken into account. In this case, the Hamiltonian can be written as the sum of independent modes, $H = \sum_{k=1}^N H_k$, with each mode described by the harmonic oscillator Hamiltonian,

$$H_k = \hbar\omega_k \left(a_k^\dagger a_k + \frac{1}{2} \right). \quad (5.1)$$

Here, $a_k^\dagger$ and a_k are the creation and annihilation operators of the mode k and satisfy the commutation relations $[a_i, a_j^\dagger] = \delta_{ij}$ and $[a_i^\dagger, a_j^\dagger] = [a_i, a_j] = 0$. These operators have these names because they create or annihilate a photon with wave vector $\mathbf{k}$, changing the mode energy by one quantum. The quantum harmonic oscillator can equivalently be described in terms of the position and momentum operators, also called quadratures,

$$q_k = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}(a_k^\dagger + a_k), \quad (5.2)$$

$$p_k = \frac{i}{\sqrt{2}}(a_k^\dagger - a_k). \quad (5.3)$$

For N -mode systems, the quadratures can be grouped into a vector $R = (R_1, \dots, R_N)^T = (q_1, p_1, \dots, q_N, p_N)^T$, allowing the commutation relations to be condensed in $[R_i, R_j] = i\Omega_{ij}$,

where

$$\Omega = \bigoplus_{k=1}^N \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}. \quad (5.4)$$

is the N -mode symplectic form. The quadratures operators define the phase space $\mathcal{P} = (\mathbb{R}^{2N}, \Omega)$, a real $2N$ -dimensional space provided with the symplectic structure Ω . As a consequence, quantum states are represented as phase-space regions instead of single points like in classical mechanics.

The eigenstates of each Hamiltonian H_k in Eq. (5.1) are the Fock states $|n\rangle_k$, where n denotes the number of photons in mode k . As a consequence, the basis for the full multimode Hamiltonian is given by the tensor product $|n\rangle_{\mathbf{k}} = |n\rangle_1 \otimes |n\rangle_2 \otimes \cdots \otimes |n\rangle_N$. Each Fock basis is bounded from below by the vacuum state $|0\rangle_k$, defined by $a_k |0\rangle_k = 0$. Although the Fock representation is important for describing quantised fields, it becomes less convenient when dealing with states containing a large number of photons, such as laser fields. In these cases, an alternative representation is to use coherent states. A single-mode coherent state can be written as a linear combination of Fock states,

$$|\alpha\rangle_k = e^{-\frac{1}{2}|\alpha|^2} \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{\alpha^n}{\sqrt{n!}} |n\rangle_k. \quad (5.5)$$

Coherent states can also be described as the application of the Weyl operator, also known as the displacement operator, to the vacuum state,

$$|\alpha\rangle_k = D_k(\alpha) |0\rangle_k, \quad (5.6)$$

where the Weyl operator is

$$D_k(\alpha) = e^{\alpha a_k^\dagger - \alpha^* a_k}, \quad (5.7)$$

with $\alpha \in \mathbb{C}$ being the displacement parameter. For the N -mode case, the displacement operator can be written in terms of the canonical operator vector R as

$$D(\mathbf{r}) = e^{R^T \Omega \mathbf{r}}, \quad (5.8)$$

where $\mathbf{r} = (q'_1, p'_1, \dots, q'_N, p'_N)$ is a vector in phase-space $\mathcal{P}$ specifying the displacement applied for each quadrature.

Until this moment, we have been using density matrices to describe our states. However, the density matrices of CV systems are infinite-dimensional, making this approach mathematically complicated. An alternative is to work with equivalent phase-space representations. The characteristic function is a multivariable function obtained through the Fourier-Weyl transform of the density operator (83), being written as

$$\chi_\rho(\mathbf{r}) = \text{Tr}[\rho D(\mathbf{r})]. \quad (5.9)$$

In this work, we will consider only the symmetric-ordered characteristic function defined above; other orderings can be found in Refs. (83, 84). Although χ_ρ fully characterises a quantum state, it is still expressed in terms of displacement variables rather than quadrature operators. The full transition to phase-space can be done by taking the Fourier transform of the characteristic function, resulting in the Wigner quasiprobability distribution,

$$W_\rho(\mathbf{q}, \mathbf{p}) = \frac{1}{\pi^N} \int_{\mathbb{R}^N} \langle \mathbf{q} + \mathbf{x} | \rho | \mathbf{q} - \mathbf{x} \rangle e^{2i\mathbf{x} \cdot \mathbf{p}} d^N \mathbf{x}. \quad (5.10)$$

Here, $\mathbf{q}$ and $\mathbf{p}$ are N -dimensional vectors indicating the coordinates of a point in the phase-space. The vector $\mathbf{x}$ is a symmetric displacement around $\mathbf{q}$, being the integration variable and $q_k \mathbf{x} = q_k x_k$. The Wigner distribution is called a quasiprobability because, unlike classical probability distributions, it may take negative values. Still, its marginalisation reproduces the correct probability distribution associated with the quadrature observables (84).

Among the different classes of continuous-variable states, Gaussian states play an important role due to their mathematical simplicity and experimental relevance. As the name suggests, the Wigner distribution associated with these states is a Gaussian function in phase space. For a single variable, a Gaussian function can be written as

$$g(x) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2\pi}\sigma} \exp\left(-\frac{1}{2} \frac{(x - \mu)^2}{\sigma^2}\right), \quad (5.11)$$

where $\mu = \langle x \rangle$ is the mean value (first moment) and $\sigma^2 = \langle (x - \langle x \rangle)^2 \rangle$ is the variance (second moment). These two quantities fully characterise a Gaussian distribution. Similarly, multimode Gaussian states are fully characterised by the first and second moments of the quadrature operators. The first moments are grouped into the mean vector $\mathbf{v}$, whose elements are

$$v_j = \langle R_j \rangle_\rho, \quad (5.12)$$

while the second moments are written in the covariance matrix Θ , with elements

$$\Theta_{ij} = \frac{1}{2} \langle R_i R_j + R_j R_i \rangle_\rho - \langle R_i \rangle_\rho \langle R_j \rangle_\rho, \quad (5.13)$$

where $\langle O \rangle_\rho \equiv \text{Tr}[\rho O]$. With these definitions, the Wigner distribution becomes

$$W(\mathbf{x}) = \frac{1}{\pi^N \sqrt{|\Theta|}} \exp\left(-(\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v})^T \Theta^{-1} (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v})\right), \quad (5.14)$$

where $\mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^{2N}$ and $|\Theta| = \det(\Theta)$. Important examples of Gaussian states are coherent states, thermal states, and the vacuum state.

In addition to characterising Gaussian states, we are interested in the operations that act upon them. Although general quantum operations may destroy Gaussianity,

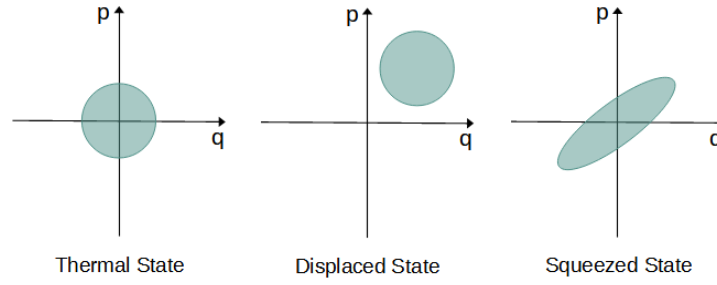


Figure 10 – Illustration of a single-mode thermal state, displaced coherent state, and squeezed coherent state in the phase space.

Source: By the author

Gaussian operations preserve the Gaussian form of the state in phase space. In this work, we will only analyse single-mode Gaussian states, where the relevant unitary Gaussian operations are displacement operations, defined in Eq. (5.7), and squeezing operations. The displacement operator, as the name suggests, shifts the whole Gaussian state without deforming the distribution. In other terms, it varies the mean vector while keeping the covariance matrix unchanged. On the other hand, the squeezing operator for a single mode is defined as

$$S_k(z) = e^{-\frac{1}{2}(z^* a_k - z a_k^\dagger)}, \quad (5.15)$$

where $z = r e^{i\phi_s}$ with r being the squeezing parameter and ϕ_s being the squeezing phase responsible to rotate the state. The squeezing operator deforms the state in the phase space by compressing one quadrature. As a consequence of the uncertainty principle, the other quadrature will expand. Mathematically, this means that squeezing operations only affect the covariance matrix, preserving the mean vector. An illustration of how these operations affect a Gaussian state is shown in Figure 10. We will not use the multimode squeezing operator in this work, but its definitions can be found in Refs. (83,84).

5.2 Thermal Relaxation of Gaussian States

As discussed in Chap. 2, the dynamics of an open system can be described by the Lindblad master equation. In this case, we will consider a single bosonic mode (Eq. (5.1) with $k = 1$) interacting with a thermal bath and evolving in time according to Davies map, which has already been calculated in the example in Sec. 2.2.1.2,

$$\frac{d}{dt}\rho = -i[H, \rho] + \Gamma(\bar{n} + 1)\mathcal{D}_a(\rho) + \Gamma\bar{n}\mathcal{D}_{a^\dagger}(\rho), \quad (5.16)$$

where Γ is the dissipation rate and $\bar{n} = 1/(e^{\beta\omega} - 1)$ is the Bose distribution. Recalling the jump operators of Eq. (2.50), we can rewrite $\mathcal{D}^-(\rho) = \Gamma(\bar{n} + 1)\mathcal{D}_a(\rho)$ and $\mathcal{D}^+(\rho) = \Gamma\bar{n}\mathcal{D}_{a^\dagger}(\rho)$. Because this is a Davies maps, we know that the steady state will always be a

thermal state with mean vector $\mathbf{v}_{eq} = 0$ and a covariance matrix equal to $\Theta_{eq} = f(\beta)\mathbb{I}$, where $f(\beta) = \bar{n} + 1/2$.

As elaborated in Sec. 5.1, it is convenient to use the phase-space representation instead of the density matrix. For this reason, we will rewrite Eq. (5.16) in terms of the mean vector and the covariance matrix using that $\frac{d}{dt} \langle O \rangle_\rho = \text{Tr}[O \frac{d}{dt} \rho]$, where O is a time-independent operator. The mean vector of a single mode has the form* $\mathbf{v}_t = (\langle a \rangle, \langle a^\dagger \rangle)^T$. To find its time derivative, we compute

$$\frac{d}{dt} \langle a \rangle = - \left(i\omega + \frac{\Gamma}{2} \right) \langle a \rangle, \quad (5.17)$$

$$\frac{d}{dt} \langle a^\dagger \rangle = \left(i\omega - \frac{\Gamma}{2} \right) \langle a^\dagger \rangle, \quad (5.18)$$

which gives the differential equation

$$\dot{\mathbf{v}}_t = \Lambda \mathbf{v}_t, \quad (5.19)$$

where

$$\Lambda = -\frac{1}{2} \begin{bmatrix} \Gamma + 2i\omega & 0 \\ 0 & \Gamma - 2i\omega \end{bmatrix}. \quad (5.20)$$

The covariance matrix of a single mode is structured as

$$\Theta_t = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{1}{2}(\langle a^\dagger a \rangle + \langle a a^\dagger \rangle) - \langle a^\dagger \rangle \langle a \rangle & \langle a^2 \rangle - \langle a \rangle^2 \\ \langle a^{\dagger 2} \rangle - \langle a^\dagger \rangle^2 & \frac{1}{2}(\langle a^\dagger a \rangle + \langle a a^\dagger \rangle) - \langle a^\dagger \rangle \langle a \rangle \end{bmatrix}. \quad (5.21)$$

To take its time derivative, we first compute

$$\frac{d}{dt} \langle a a^\dagger \rangle = -\Gamma(\langle a a^\dagger \rangle - \bar{n} - 1), \quad (5.22)$$

$$\frac{d}{dt} \langle a^\dagger a \rangle = -\Gamma(\langle a^\dagger a \rangle - \bar{n}), \quad (5.23)$$

$$\frac{d}{dt} \langle a^2 \rangle = -(2i\omega + \Gamma) \langle a^2 \rangle, \quad (5.24)$$

$$\frac{d}{dt} \langle a^{\dagger 2} \rangle = (2i\omega - \Gamma) \langle a^{\dagger 2} \rangle, \quad (5.25)$$

to obtain the following differential equation called the Lyapunov Equation,

$$\dot{\Theta}_t = \Lambda \Theta + \Theta \Lambda^\dagger + F, \quad (5.26)$$

where $F = \Gamma f(\beta)\mathbb{I}$. Therefore, by solving Eqs. (5.19) and (5.26), we find that the time evolution of a single-mode Gaussian state is given by

$$\mathbf{v}_t = e^{-\Gamma t} (\langle a \rangle_0 e^{-i\omega t}, \langle a^\dagger \rangle_0 e^{i\omega t})^T, \quad (5.27)$$

$$\Theta_t^{11} = \Theta_t^{22} = c_0 e^{-\Gamma t} + f(\beta), \quad (5.28)$$

$$\Theta_t^{12} = (\Theta_t^{21})^* = d_0 e^{-(\Gamma + 2i\omega)t}, \quad (5.29)$$

* In this section, we changed from the quadrature basis to the complex phase-space basis. This transformation for both mean vector and covariance matrix is detailed in Appx. C.

where c_0 , d_0 , $\langle a \rangle_0$, and $\langle a^\dagger \rangle_0$ are constants obtained from the initial conditions. The calculation for an initial thermal state, displaced state and squeezed state are done in Appx. F and will be used in the results presented in the next sections.

To analyse the thermal relaxation of a Gaussian state from a thermodynamic perspective, we will rewrite some information and thermodynamic quantities we defined in Chap. 3 in terms of the mean vector and covariance matrix. Because the asymmetry only occurs in the far-from-equilibrium regime, it will be useful to find the nonequilibrium free energy of a Gaussian state. As we did in Sec. 3.1, we will start with the average energy of a Gaussian state with Wigner distribution $W(\mathbf{x})$, which is defined as

$$E(W(\mathbf{x})) = \omega \int |\mathbf{x}|^2 W(\mathbf{x}) d^2 \mathbf{x}. \quad (5.30)$$

Using that the Wigner distribution of an arbitrary thermal state is

$$W_{th}(\mathbf{x}) = \frac{e^{-|\mathbf{x}|^2/f(\beta)}}{\pi f(\beta)}, \quad (5.31)$$

we can substitute $|\mathbf{x}|^2 = -f(\beta)(\ln(\pi f(\beta)) + \ln W_{th}(\mathbf{x}))$ in the average energy to obtain

$$\begin{aligned} E(W(\mathbf{x})) &= -\omega f(\beta) \int W(\mathbf{x})(\ln(\pi f(\beta)) + \ln W_{th}(\mathbf{x})) d^2 \mathbf{x} \\ &= -\omega f(\beta) \left[\ln(\pi f(\beta)) + \int W(\mathbf{x}) \ln W_{th}(\mathbf{x}) d^2 \mathbf{x} \right], \end{aligned} \quad (5.32)$$

where we used $\int W(\mathbf{x}) d^2 \mathbf{x} = 1$. Similar to what we did in Eq. (3.7), we will introduce the Wigner entropy (24, 83–85) defined as

$$S_W(W(\mathbf{x})) = - \int W(\mathbf{x}) \ln W(\mathbf{x}) d^2 \mathbf{x} = 1 + \ln \pi + \frac{1}{2} \ln |\Theta|, \quad (5.33)$$

and find

$$\begin{aligned} E(W(\mathbf{x})) &= -\omega f(\beta) \left[\ln(\pi f(\beta)) + \int W(\mathbf{x}) \ln W_{th}(\mathbf{x}) d^2 \mathbf{x} + S_W(W(\mathbf{x})) - S_W(W(\mathbf{x})) \right] \\ &= -\omega f(\beta) \left[\ln(\pi f(\beta)) + \int W(\mathbf{x}) \ln W_{th}(\mathbf{x}) d^2 \mathbf{x} - \int W(\mathbf{x}) \ln W(\mathbf{x}) d^2 \mathbf{x} - S_W(W(\mathbf{x})) \right], \end{aligned} \quad (5.34)$$

where we can identify the Wigner relative entropy, that is defined as (24, 85)

$$\begin{aligned} K[W_1(\mathbf{x})||W_2(\mathbf{x})] &= \int W_1(\mathbf{x}) \ln \frac{W_1(\mathbf{x})}{W_2(\mathbf{x})} d^2 \mathbf{x} \\ &= -1 + \frac{1}{2} \left[(\mathbf{v}_1 - \mathbf{v}_2)^\dagger \Theta_2^{-1} (\mathbf{v}_1 - \mathbf{v}_2) + \text{Tr}(\Theta_2^{-1} \Theta_1) + \ln \frac{|\Theta_2|}{|\Theta_1|} \right]. \end{aligned} \quad (5.35)$$

The full derivation of the Wigner entropy and the Wigner relative entropy in terms of the mean vector and covariance matrix can be found on Appx. D. As a result, the internal energy of a Gaussian system is

$$E(W(\mathbf{x})) = \omega f(\beta) K[W(\mathbf{x})||W_{th}(\mathbf{x})] + \omega f(\beta) S(W(\mathbf{x})) + F_{eq}, \quad (5.36)$$

where $F_{\text{eq}} = -\omega f(\beta) \ln(\pi f(\beta))$ is the equilibrium free energy of a thermal state. Given that for Gaussian states the Wigner entropy satisfy conditions analogous to the von Neumann entropy (42), we can extend the Helmholtz free energy to $F(W) = E(W) - \omega f(\beta) S_W(W)$. Using this free energy and considering that $W_{th}(\mathbf{x}) = W_{\text{eq}}(\mathbf{x})$ is the equilibrium state, we can define a nonequilibrium free energy of a Gaussian state as

$$F_{\text{neq}}(W(\mathbf{x})) = \omega f(\beta) K[W(\mathbf{x})||W_{\text{eq}}(\mathbf{x})] + F_{\text{eq}}, \quad (5.37)$$

which is similar to Eq. (3.8). So, the Wigner relative entropy (Eq. (5.35)) is an indicator of how far from the equilibrium our system is. For this reason, when studying the asymmetry in Gaussian states, we will also impose that the hot and cold initial states have the same initial Wigner relative entropy.

As discussed in Chap. 3, another approach to study the nonequilibrium regime is using ergotropy defined in Eq. (3.11). If we substitute (5.36) into Eq. (3.11), we find

$$\mathcal{E}(W(\mathbf{x})) = \omega f(\beta) (K[W(\mathbf{x})||W_{th}(\mathbf{x})] - K[W_{\pi}(\mathbf{x})||W_{th}(\mathbf{x})]), \quad (5.38)$$

where $W_{\pi}(\mathbf{x})$ is the Wigner function of the passive state. The passive state of a Gaussian state is always thermal with inverse temperature β_{π} defined by $f(\beta_{\pi}) = \sqrt{|\Theta|}$. For this reason, we can use $W_{th} = W_{\pi}$ such that ergotropy becomes (24)

$$\mathcal{E}(W(\mathbf{x})) = \omega f(\beta_{\pi}) K[W(\mathbf{x})||W_{\pi}(\mathbf{x})]. \quad (5.39)$$

From this expression, we find that every squeezed and displaced state have ergotropy meaning they are in the nonequilibrium regime (86). An interesting result from Ref. (24) is that squeezed states with higher initial ergotropy relax faster than displaced state, what has been named ergotropic Mpemba effect. It is also shown that, even when the initial ergotropy is the same, the squeezed state also relax faster than the displaced state. These results inspired the study of how displacement and squeezing may affect the thermal relaxation asymmetry.

Given that the thermal state in Eq. (5.38) is arbitrary, we can assume it is the equilibrium state, $W_{th} = W_{\text{eq}}$, instead of the passive state. Then, making the time derivative Eq. (5.38), we find that the total entropy production for Gaussian states have a passive and an ergotropic part as

$$\begin{aligned} \Pi_W &= -\frac{d}{dt} K[W(\mathbf{x})||W_{th}(\mathbf{x})] \\ &= -\frac{d}{dt} K[W_{\pi}(\mathbf{x})||W_{th}(\mathbf{x})] - \frac{\dot{\mathcal{E}}}{\omega f(\beta)} \\ &= \Pi_{\pi} - \frac{\dot{\mathcal{E}}}{\omega f(\beta)}, \end{aligned} \quad (5.40)$$

which is similar to Eq. (3.13). So it is also possible to separate the entropy production of Gaussian states into a passive and an ergotropic contribution.

Now that we briefly redefined some thermodynamic quantities for Gaussian states, we will discuss how the thermal kinematics change in this regime. As discussed in Sec. 3.2, Fisher information is the essential quantity for the thermal kinematics approach of heating-cooling asymmetry. To find a Fisher information for Gaussian states, we will follow the same procedure done in Sec. 3.2 to find the Wigner relative entropy as

$$K[W(\mathbf{x}, \theta + d\theta) || W(\mathbf{x}, \theta)] = \frac{1}{2} \mathcal{I}_W(\theta) d\theta^2 + \mathcal{O}(d\theta^3), \quad (5.41)$$

where we identify $\mathcal{I}_W(\theta)$ as the Wigner-Fisher information. The details of this calculation can be found in Appx. E, where we also show that the Wigner-Fisher information can be written in terms of the mean vector and the covariance matrix as

$$\mathcal{I}_W(t) = \dot{\mathbf{v}}_t^\dagger \Theta_t^{-1} \dot{\mathbf{v}}_t + \text{Tr}[(\Theta_t^{-1} \dot{\Theta}_t)^2]. \quad (5.42)$$

Note that here we changed $\theta = t$ because in thermal kinematics the interesting parameter is time, and, as a result, the thermal kinematics variables become

$$v_W(t) = \sqrt{\frac{1}{2} \mathcal{I}_W(\rho(t))}, \quad (5.43)$$

$$\mathcal{L}_W(t) = \int_0^t \sqrt{\frac{1}{2} \mathcal{I}_W(\rho(\tau))} d\tau, \quad (5.44)$$

$$\varphi_W(t_s) = \frac{\mathcal{L}_W(t_s)}{\mathcal{L}_W(t_f)}. \quad (5.45)$$

Additionally, the Wigner-Fisher information can be separated into a passive and ergotropic contribution,

$$\mathcal{I}_W(t) = \mathcal{I}_\pi(t) + \mathcal{I}_\mathcal{E}(t) \quad (5.46)$$

To see this, we will use that the passive state of any Gaussian state is always thermal, so the first term of Eq. (5.42) is zero because $\mathbf{v}_\pi = 0$. Then, using that the covariance matrix is $\Theta_\pi = f(\beta_\pi) \mathbb{I}$ where $f(\beta_\pi) = \sqrt{|\Theta|}$, we find $\Theta_\pi^{-1} = (1/f(\beta_\pi)) \mathbb{I}$ and $\dot{\Theta}_\pi = f(\beta_\pi) \dot{S}_W(t) \mathbb{I}$. Substituting these matrices in the second term of Eq. (5.42), we obtain the passive contribution in the Wigner-Fisher information is

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{I}_\pi(t) &= \text{Tr}[(\Theta_t^{-1} \dot{\Theta}_t)^2] \\ &= \text{Tr} \left[\left(\frac{1}{f(\beta_\pi)} f(\beta_\pi) \dot{S}_W(t) \mathbb{I} \right)^2 \right] \\ &= 2 \dot{S}_W^2(t). \end{aligned} \quad (5.47)$$

An interesting observation about the time derivative of the Wigner entropy is its relation with the energy change of the passive state. To see this, we use that $E(\pi) = \omega f(\beta_\pi)$ and

find

$$\dot{S}_W = \frac{1}{2} \frac{\partial}{\partial t} \ln(|\Theta_t|) = \frac{\dot{E}(\pi)}{E(\pi)}. \quad (5.48)$$

With this, we introduced all the necessary quantities and can start discussing our results. First, we will discuss the heating-cooling asymmetry for thermal states in Sec. 5.3. Then we will investigate the consequences of displacing this thermal state in Sec. 5.4 and squeezing this thermal state in Sec. 5.5. Because a squeezed state relaxate faster than a displaced state, we will try to invert the asymmetry by combining these Gaussian operations in Sec. 5.6.

5.3 Asymmetry for Thermal States

In this section, we consider a Gaussian state initially in a thermal state with inverse temperature β_i interacting with a bath at inverse temperature β_f . After solving Eq. (5.19) and Eq. (5.26), we find the dynamics is described by a zero mean vector ($\mathbf{v}_{th} = 0$) and a covariance matrix equal to $\Theta_{th} = \Delta_\beta \mathbb{I}$, being $\Delta_\beta = [f(\beta_i) - f(\beta_f)]e^{-\Gamma t} + f(\beta_f)$ where Γ is the dissipation rate, and $f(\beta) = \bar{n} + 1/2$.

Similar to the qubits case, to find two thermodynamically equivalent initial states, we use the Wigner relative entropy defined in Eq. (5.35). Using that for thermal states $|\Theta| = (\Delta_\beta)^2$ and $\Theta_{th}^{-1} = \frac{1}{\Delta_\beta} \mathbb{I}$, being the equilibrium $\lim_{t \rightarrow \infty} \Delta_\beta = f(\beta_f)$, the analytical expression for the Wigner-Fisher information (defined in Eq. (5.42)) is

$$\mathcal{I}_{W_{th}}(t) = 2 \left[\frac{\partial}{\partial t} \ln \Delta_\beta \right]^2 = 2 \left[\frac{\dot{\Delta}_\beta}{\Delta_\beta} \right]^2, \quad (5.49)$$

the statistical velocity (defined in Eq. (5.43))

$$v_{W_{th}}(t) = \frac{\partial}{\partial t} \ln \Delta_\beta, \quad (5.50)$$

and the statistical length (defined in Eq. (5.44))

$$\mathcal{L}_{W_{th}}(t) = \ln \left(\frac{[f(\beta_i) - f(\beta_f)]e^{-\Gamma t} + f(\beta_f)}{f(\beta_i)} \right). \quad (5.51)$$

The statistical length in the equilibrium is

$$\mathcal{L}_{W_{th}}^{eq} \equiv \lim_{t \rightarrow \infty} \mathcal{L}_{W_{th}}(t) = \ln \left[\frac{f(\beta_f)}{f(\beta_i)} \right]. \quad (5.52)$$

Because of the explicit dependence on β_i , two states with different initial temperatures that relax to the same final temperature will have different statistical lengths. To simplify

the notation, we define $f_i \equiv f(\beta_f)/f(\beta_i)$ and $k = \exp(-\Gamma t)$ and use the expressions (5.51) and (5.52) to write the degree of completion (defined in Eq. (5.45)) as

$$\varphi_{W_{th}}(t) = \frac{\ln(k + (1-k)f_i)}{\ln(f_i)} \equiv \varphi_i(k). \quad (5.53)$$

Now, we can analyse the thermal relaxation asymmetry for thermal states. We know that $\beta_c > \beta_f > \beta_h$, which results in $f(\beta_c) < f(\beta_f) < f(\beta_h)$, leading to

$$1 > \frac{f(\beta_f)}{f(\beta_h)} = f_h \quad (5.54)$$

$$1 < \frac{f(\beta_f)}{f(\beta_c)} = f_c, \quad (5.55)$$

which is equivalent to $\ln(f_c) > 0$ and $\ln(f_h) < 0$. Next, we will use the Jensen inequality for $f(x) = \ln(x)$, that is $f(kx_1 + (1-k)x_2) \geq kf(x_1) + (1-k)f(x_2)$. In our case, we can use $x_1 = 1$ and $x_2 = f_i$ to obtain

$$\ln(k + (1-k)f_i) \geq (1-k)\ln(f_i), \quad (5.56)$$

where we have the numerator of the degree of completion on the left side and the denominator on the right side. For the heating case ($i = c$), $\ln(f_c) > 0$ so dividing Eq. (5.56) by it do not change the inequality and we find that the degree of completion (Eq. (5.53)) for this process is

$$\varphi_c = \frac{\ln(k + (1-k)f_c)}{\ln(f_c)} \geq 1 - k. \quad (5.57)$$

On the other hand, for the cooling case ($i = h$), $\ln(f_h) < 0$ so the division invert the inequality in Eq. (5.56) and we find that the degree of completion for this process is

$$\varphi_h = \frac{\ln(k + (1-k)f_h)}{\ln(f_h)} \leq 1 - k. \quad (5.58)$$

Given that both degree of completion inequalities have $1 - k$, we can combine them to obtain $\varphi_c \geq \varphi_h$, which means that heating is always faster or equal to cooling a Gaussian thermal state.

It is relevant to study whether the presence of thermal relaxation asymmetry in Gaussian systems is also explained by the difference in entropy production rate. The Wigner relative entropy for a thermal state is

$$K[W_{th}||W_f] = -1 + \frac{\Delta_\beta}{f(\beta_f)} + \ln \frac{f(\beta_f)}{\Delta_\beta}. \quad (5.59)$$

By taking the negative time derivative of Wigner relative entropy, we find that the entropy production rate is

$$\Pi_{W_{th}} = \frac{\dot{\Delta}_\beta}{\Delta_\beta} - \frac{\dot{\Delta}_\beta}{f(\beta_f)} = \dot{S}_{W_{th}} \left(1 - \frac{\Delta_\beta}{f(\beta)} \right), \quad (5.60)$$

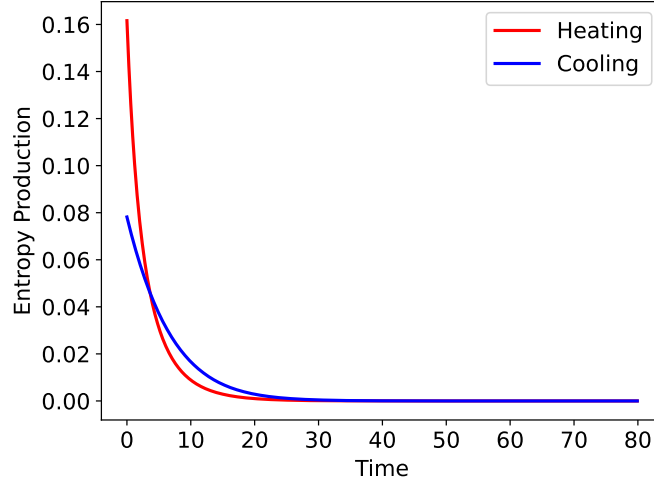


Figure 11 – Entropy production rate for heating (red) and cooling (blue) thermal states.

Source: By the author

where $\dot{S}_{W_{th}} = \dot{\Delta}_\beta / \Delta_\beta$ is the time derivative of the Wigner entropy (Eq. (5.33)). From this expression, we obtain Fig. 11 by using $K[W_c||W_f] = K[W_h||W_f] = 0.5$ and $T_f = 2$ (in natural units). Note that heating has an initially higher entropy production rate that reaches zero before cooling. This results corroborate with previous studies showing that heating is faster than cooling for Gaussian states far-from-equilibrium (14, 26, 37).

5.4 Asymmetry for Displaced States

Now, we can analyse what happens to the asymmetry when we displace a thermal state. The solution of Eq. (5.19) and Eq. (5.26) is that the mean vector becomes $\mathbf{v}_d = (\mu_t, \mu_t^*)$ where $\mu_t = \mu e^{-(i\omega + \Gamma/2)t}$ while the covariance matrix remains unchanged, i.e., $\Theta_d = \Delta_\beta \mathbb{I}$. Using these results in the Wigner relative entropy (Eq. (5.35)), we find

$$K[W_d||W_f] = -1 + \frac{|\mu|^2}{f(\beta_f)} e^{-\Gamma t} + \frac{\Delta_\beta}{f(\beta_f)} + \ln \frac{f(\beta_f)}{\Delta_\beta}. \quad (5.61)$$

The term containing the displacement parameter (μ) is independent of the system's initial temperature, which means that, applying a displacement operator to any thermal state results in the same shift in their Wigner relative entropy. Additionally, given that the ergotropy of a displaced state is $\mathcal{E}_d = |\mu|^2 e^{-\Gamma t}$, using the same μ is enough to guarantee different states have the same initial ergotropy and relative entropy.

The Wigner-Fisher information for a displaced state is

$$\mathcal{I}_{W_d}(t) = 2 \left[\frac{\dot{\Delta}_\beta}{\Delta_\beta} \right]^2 + \frac{2}{\Delta_\beta} \left(\omega^2 + \frac{\Gamma^2}{4} \right) |\mu|^2 e^{-\Gamma t}, \quad (5.62)$$

where we identify the first term as the passive contribution, which is the same as the Wigner-Fisher information of the thermal state presented in Eq. (5.49). The second term

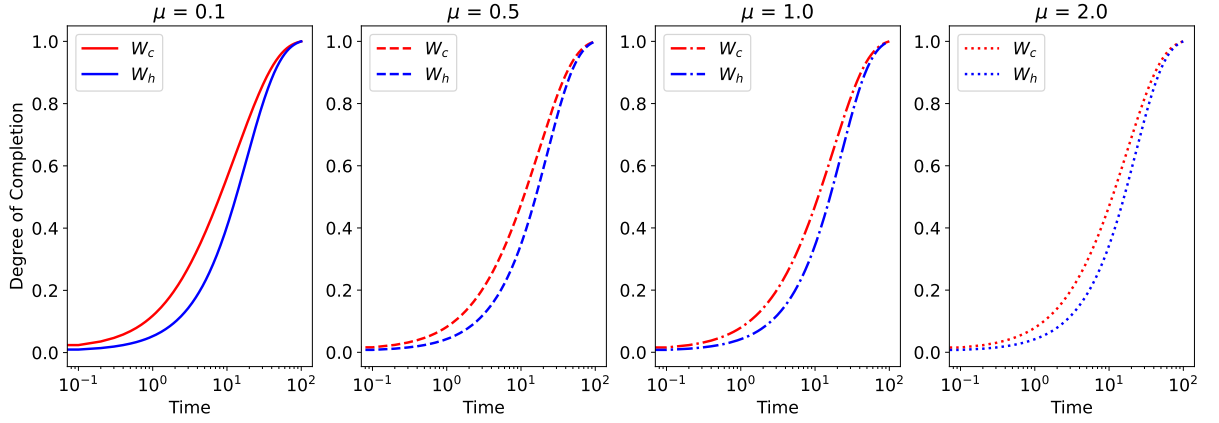


Figure 12 – Degree of completion for a displaced thermal state. Each graph corresponds to a different displacement parameter (μ).

Source: By the author

can be identified as the ergotropic contribution. Even though displaced states do not have a real temperature, its passive state is always thermal so we can assume it will heat up or cool down. One interesting aspect of this separation is that the displacement do not affect the trajectory of the passive state, so the heating-cooling asymmetry will not be affected, as we will see in our results.

As we did for the thermal state, we could use Eq. (5.62) to try to analytically calculate the thermal kinematics variables. Despite being possible to analytically find the statistical velocity and length, the complexity of the final expressions ultimately makes it difficult to extract useful information. Therefore, we use a numerical approach for this case. The chosen parameter were $\omega = 1$, $\Gamma = 0.1$, $T_f = 2$, and $K[W_c||W_f] = K[W_h||W_f] = 0.5$. Fig. 12 shows the degree of completion for different displacement parameters, with the

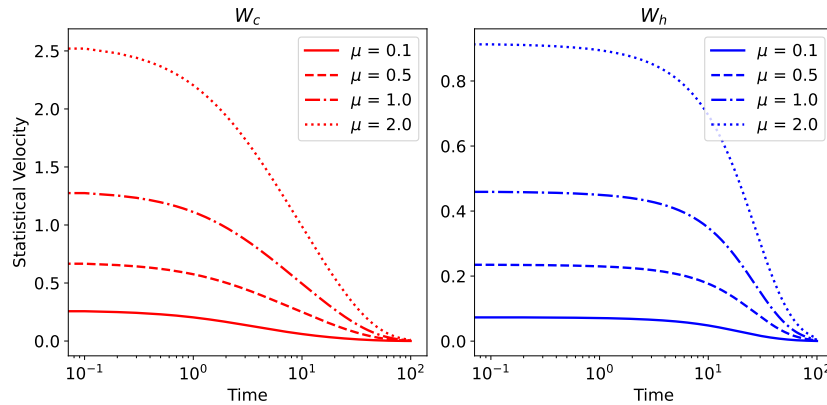


Figure 13 – Statistical velocity of a displaced thermal state as a function of time. Each curve corresponds to a different displacement parameter (μ).

Source: By the author

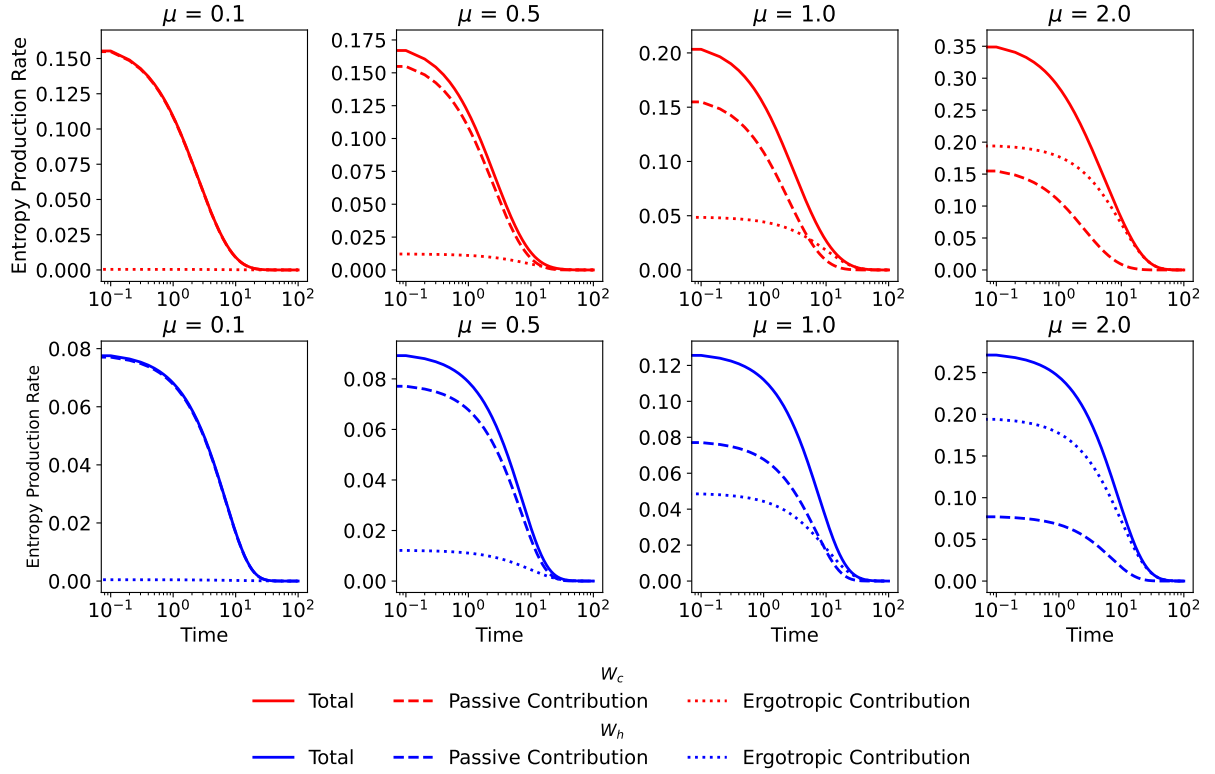


Figure 14 – Total entropy production rate(solid) with its ergotropic (dotted) and passive (dashed) contributions for heating (red) and cooling (blue) equidistant displaced thermal states.

Source: By the author

thermal relaxation of W_c (in red) being faster than that of W_h (in blue) for all the displacements. An interesting result is that increasing the displacement parameter, moves the initial state further away from the equilibrium (as one can see from Eq. (5.61)), but the heating-cooling asymmetry remains unchanged. However, the initial statistical velocity also increase with μ as shown in Fig. 13 and expected from Eq. (5.62). Therefore, a possible explanation for the asymmetry remaining unchanged with displacement is that the initial distance from equilibrium is compensated by a higher initial velocity.

Another way to analyse this asymmetry is using the entropy production. Given that displacement generates ergotropy in the system, we can use the entropy production separation into passive and ergotropic contribution from Eq. (5.40). The total entropy production rate for a displaced state is given by

$$\Pi_{W_d} = \frac{1}{f(\beta)} (\Gamma |\mu|^2 e^{-\Gamma t} - \dot{\Delta}_\beta) + \frac{\dot{\Delta}_\beta}{\Delta_\beta}. \quad (5.63)$$

The entropy production of the passive state is

$$\Pi_{W_\pi} = \dot{S}_{W_\pi} \left(1 - \frac{f(\beta_\pi)}{f(\beta)} \right) = \Pi_{W_{th}}, \quad (5.64)$$

which is the same entropy production of the thermal state (Eq. (5.60)), because displacement do not change the covariance matrix, resulting in $f(\beta_\pi) = \Delta_\beta$ and $\dot{S}_{W_\pi} = \dot{S}_{W_{th}}$. Finally, the ergotropic contribution is in terms of the ergotropic loss rate: $\dot{\mathcal{E}}_d = -\Gamma|\mu|^2 e^{-\Gamma t}$. Fig. 14 shows the total entropy production rate (solid line), its passive contribution (dashed line) and ergotropic contribution (dotted line). Each plot has an increasing displacement parameter μ from left to right, being W_c in red and W_h in blue. In all the graphs, W_c starts with a higher total entropy production rate than W_h , which again explains why the thermal relaxation of W_c is faster. In addition, making greater displacements increases the ergotropic contribution while keeping the passive contribution unchanged. As a consequence, the total entropy production increases with μ because of the ergotropic contribution. Another interesting result is that, when comparing W_c and W_h with same μ , the ergotropic contribution do not change, meaning the passive contribution is the generator of asymmetry that is unaffected by the displacement operation, which agrees with our previous discussion.

5.5 Asymmetry for Squeezed States

In this section, we study the thermal relaxation asymmetry of squeezed thermal states. Unlike the displacement operation, squeezing a thermal state preserves the zero mean vector and changes the covariance matrix to

$$\Theta_s = f(\beta_t) \begin{bmatrix} \cosh(2r_t) & -e^{i\phi_t} \sinh(2r_t) \\ -e^{-i\phi_t} \sinh(2r_t) & \cosh(2r_t) \end{bmatrix}, \quad (5.65)$$

where $\phi_t = \phi_s - 2\omega t$ is the squeezing phase, the squeezing parameter is implicitly defined as

$$\cosh(2r_t) = \frac{1}{f(\beta_t)} [\Delta_\beta + 2f(\beta_i)e^{-\Gamma t} \sinh^2(r)], \quad (5.66)$$

and β_t is implicitly defined by

$$f(\beta_t) = \sqrt{\Delta_\beta^2 + 4f(\beta_i)f(\beta)e^{-2\Gamma t}(e^{\Gamma t} - 1) \sinh^2(r)}. \quad (5.67)$$

With the information above, the relative entropy for a squeezed state is

$$K[W_s||W_f] = -1 + \frac{f(\beta_t)}{f(\beta)} \cosh(2r_t) + \ln \left(\frac{f(\beta)}{f(\beta_t)} \right). \quad (5.68)$$

As the squeezing operation affects the thermal occupation number, applying the same squeezing to different thermal states will not preserve the equidistance between them. Just like displacement, squeezing also generates ergotropy in the state, so it is important to choose initial states with same ergotropy. The ergotropy of a squeezed thermal state is

$$\mathcal{E}_s(t) = \omega f(\beta_t)(\cosh(2r_t) - 1), \quad (5.69)$$

from which we can see that applying the same squeezing to different thermal states will also not result in the same ergotropy. As a consequence, to make a fair comparison between heating and cooling, we must use different squeezing parameters for the colder and the hotter thermal states such that the final squeezed states have the same initial relative entropy from equilibrium and same initial ergotropy. Just like in the displacement case, squeezed states do not have a real temperature, but we can assume it will heat up or cool down because its passive state is always thermal. So, in these results, we represent the initial hotter state as W_h and the initial colder state as W_c .

For clarity, we will present an example of how to find the appropriate initial states. To start, we choose an initial relative entropy K_0 and a squeezing parameter, r_h , that will be applied in the hotter thermal state, for example. To find the initial temperature T_h of this thermal state, we use that the final squeezed state W_h must satisfy $K[W_h||W_f] = K_0$, which can be numerically done. After finding our hotter initial state, we can try to find the colder initial state. By combining Eq. (5.68) and Eq. (5.69), we get that $f(\beta_c) - f(\beta_h) + f(\beta_f) \ln(f(\beta_h)/f(\beta_c)) = 0$ must be true to satisfy the condition of same initial relative entropy and ergotropy. Given that we already know T_h , we can solve this equation to obtain the temperature of the cold squeezed state and use Eq. (5.66) to find r_c . Fig. 15 presents Wigner relative entropy as a function of temperature and shows which initial temperatures we find in the end of this process. The left plot corresponds to the smaller squeezing parameters and the right plot corresponds to the bigger squeezing parameters. Note that after increasing r_h by 0.4, the initial temperature of the hot state

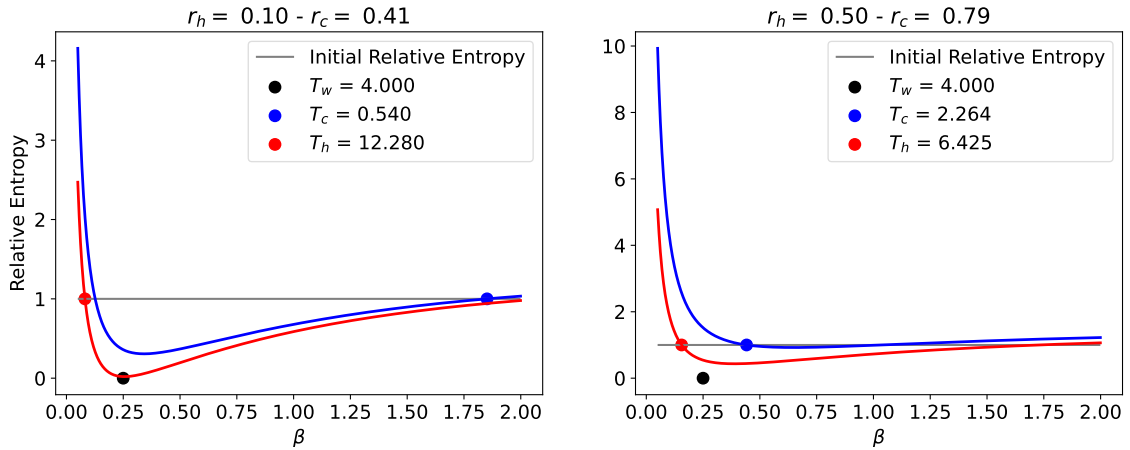


Figure 15 – Wigner relative entropy of a squeezed thermal state and the equilibrium thermal state as a function of inverse temperature. The black line indicates the chosen initial Wigner relative entropy that both hot (red dot) and cold (blue dot) squeezed states must have. The left plot uses a small squeezing parameters and the right plot use bigger squeezing parameters.

Source: By the author

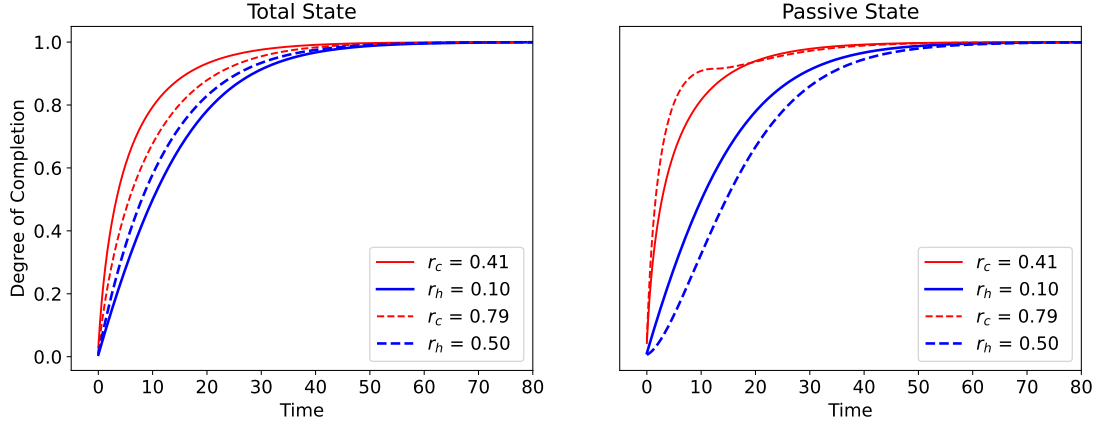


Figure 16 – Degree of completion for squeezed thermal states (left) and their passive states (right). We compared a smaller squeezing parameter (solid lines) with a bigger squeezing parameter (dashed lines) for both initially colder (r_c) and hotter (r_h) states.

Source: By the author

drops by half, while increasing r_c by 0.38 results in a colder temperature four times bigger. This means that the colder states are more sensitive to variations of the squeezing parameter.

The Wigner-Fisher information of a squeezed thermal state is

$$\mathcal{I}_{W_s}(t) = 2\dot{S}_{W_s}^2 + 8\dot{r}_t^2 + 2\dot{\phi}_t^2 \sinh^2(2r_t), \quad (5.70)$$

where the time derivative of the Wigner entropy is

$$\dot{S}_{W_s} = \frac{\dot{f}(\beta_t)}{f(\beta_t)}. \quad (5.71)$$

Again, obtaining the analytical thermal kinematic expressions from Eq. (5.70) will not bring additional information, so we will solve it numerically. In Fig. 16, we show the degree of completion as a function of time for the squeezed thermal state (left) and its passive state (right). In each plot, we compared a squeezing with small parameters (solid lines) with a squeezing with bigger parameters (dashed lines). In both plots, because W_c (in red) is always above W_h (in blue), we can say that the initially colder state relaxate faster than the initially hotter state. In the left plot, by comparing the solid lines with the dashed lines, we observe that increasing the squeezing parameters reduces the heating-cooling asymmetry of the total state, while in the right plot, the asymmetry in the passive states seems to increase as we increase the squeezing parameters.

To investigate this behaviour, we will analyse the entropy production rate and separate into its passive and ergotropic contribution from Eq. (5.40). The total entropy

production rate is

$$\Pi_{W_s} = \dot{S}_{W_s} - \frac{\dot{E}}{\omega f(\beta_f)}, \quad (5.72)$$

where the time derivative of the Wigner entropy was calculated in Eq. (5.71) and the last term is the time derivative of the energy,

$$\dot{E} = \omega[\dot{f}(\beta_t) \cosh(2r_t) + 2\dot{r}_t f(\beta_t) \sinh(2r_t)]. \quad (5.73)$$

The passive state have $f(\beta_\pi) = f(\beta_t)$, resulting in the entropy production

$$\Pi_{W_\pi} = \dot{S}_{W_s} \left(1 - \frac{f(\beta_t)}{f(\beta_f)} \right), \quad (5.74)$$

which depends on the squeezing parameter, so it will change for all of our curves. According to Eq. (5.40), to find the ergotropic contribution, we take the time derivative of Eq. (5.69) and find

$$\frac{\dot{\mathcal{E}}_s}{\omega f(\beta_f)} = \frac{\dot{f}(\beta_t)}{f(\beta_f)} (\cosh(2r_t) - 1) + 2 \frac{f(\beta_t)}{f(\beta_t)} \sinh(2r_t) \dot{r}_t. \quad (5.75)$$

As this equation depends on the squeezing parameter and initial temperature, we find out the ergotropic contribution will also change for all of our curves.

Fig. 17 show the entropy production rate, where the upper plots correspond to smaller r and the lower plots correspond to bigger r . Each graph shows the total entropy production rate (solid line) with its passive (dashed line) and ergotropic (dotted line) contributions. First, the initial total entropy production of W_c is bigger than the initial total entropy production of W_h , which explain why heating is faster than cooling again. Also, when we increase the squeezing parameters, the heating and the cooling total entropy productions decrease, but the heating process suffers a bigger reduction when compared with cooling. This can be explained by the previous discussion that colder states have higher sensitivity to squeezing variations. As a result, for bigger squeezing parameters, the difference in initial total entropy production between heating and cooling is smaller, which explains why the asymmetry was reduced for the total squeezed state. As we already noticed in the equations of entropy production, unlike the displacement operation, squeezing affects both passive and ergotropic contributions, which means that the asymmetry is not fully generated by the passive state. When we look at the passive contribution, the difference between the initial entropy production of heating and cooling becomes bigger as we increase the squeezing parameter. This can explain why the asymmetry in the passive contribution increases. The explanation of how these related quantities can have opposite behaviours with the increase of squeezing parameter is in the ergotropic contribution. Note in Fig. 17 that the ergotropic contribution increase with r , but it is not enough to compensate the decrease of the passive contribution, resulting in the reduction of the asymmetry.

One last comment of this section is regarding the oscillation in the degree of completion that appears for the passive state of the big squeezing parameter case (red dashed line of the right plot in Fig. 16). Additionally, the statistical velocity of this same passive state is shown in Fig. 18 and also presents this oscillation. Recalling the degree of completion and statistical velocity we had for the interacting qubits, we also saw this oscillations and attributed them to a local non-Markovian dynamics witnessed as negative entropy production. The inset in Fig. 17 shows that the entropy production of the passive state with big squeezing parameter also have negative value for a period of time, which is a signature of non-Markovianity. From this observations, we can again affirm that non-Markovianity may be related to faster relaxation. The origin of this non-Markovian dynamics is a consequence of squeezing affecting the passive state, whose time evolution will not be described by the Lindblad equation in Eq. (5.16). It is interesting that negative entropy production is only observed for heating state with big squeezing parameter and not in its correspondent cooling state. One possibility is that the squeezing parameter used in heating is bigger than the one in cooling. However, this cooling process

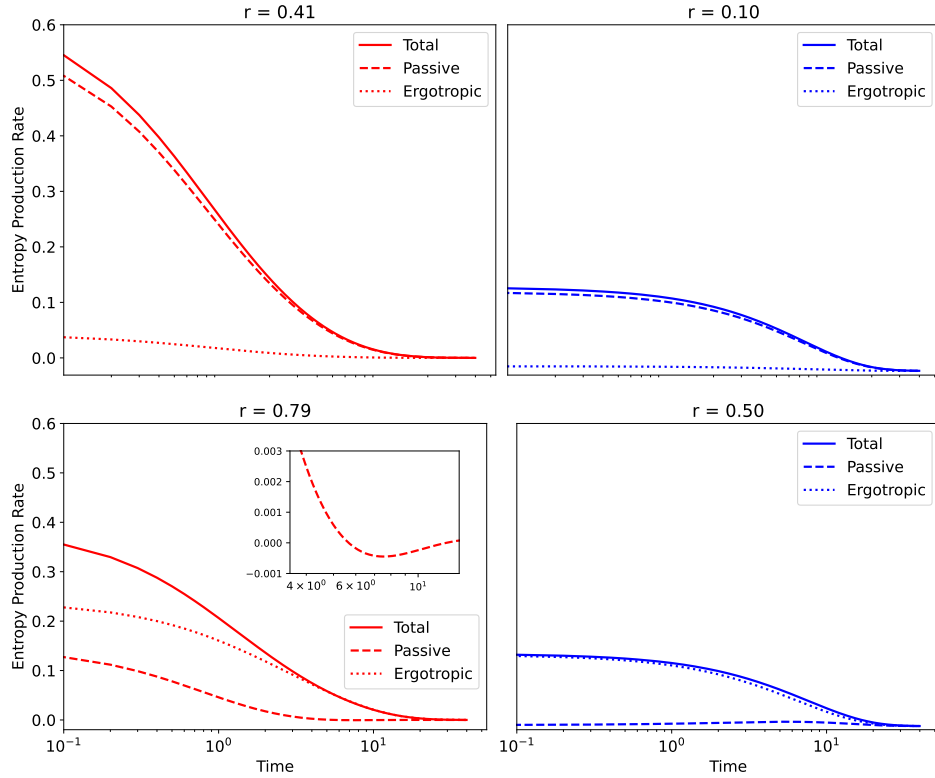


Figure 17 – Entropy production rate for heating (red) and cooling (blue) squeezed thermal states with smaller parameters (upper plots) and bigger parameters (lower plots). We separate the passive contribution (dashed) and ergotropic contribution (dotted) of the total entropy production rate (solid). The inset plot show the region where the passive state entropy production becomes negative.

Source: By the author

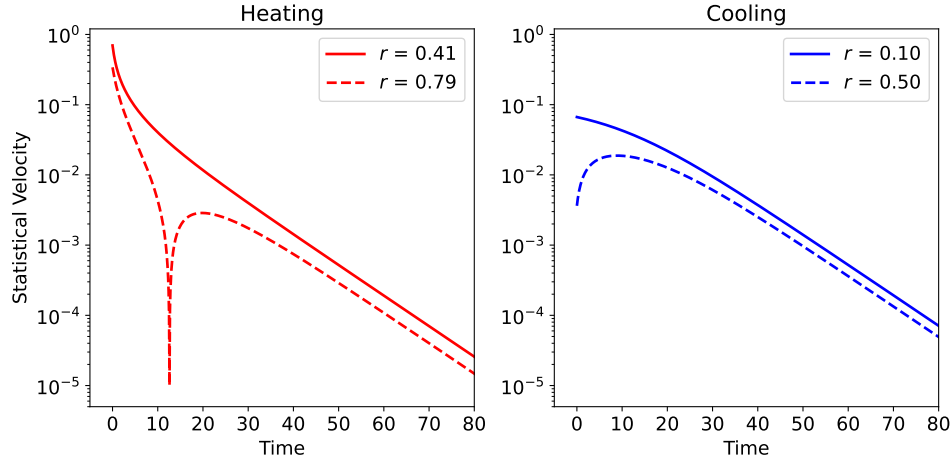


Figure 18 – Statistical velocity of the heating (red) and cooling (blue) passive states of squeezed states with smaller parameter (solid lines) and bigger parameters (dashed lines).

Source: By the author

do have a different behaviour, which is a small increase in its entropy production and statistical velocity. This means that, instead of receiving a feedback information from the environment, the system accelerates and loose more information to the environment.

5.6 Asymmetry Inversion for Gaussian States

Until this moment, we only observed that heating was faster than cooling, but previous works have shown that this is not always true (19, 28, 29). In this section, we will try to invert this asymmetry using a result from Ref. (24) in which squeezed states relaxate faster than displaced states. So, we will apply a squeezing operation on the slower process, that is cooling, and will apply a displacement operation on heating because both initial state must have the same initial ergotropy.

To find a hotter squeezed state and colder displaced state with the same initial relative entropy and ergotropy, we will use a similar approach as the one from Sec. 5.5. We combine $K[W_s||W_f] = K[W_d||W_f]$ and $\mathcal{E}_s = \mathcal{E}_d$ to obtain $f(\beta_d) - f(\beta_s) + f(\beta_f) \ln(f(\beta_s)/f(\beta_d)) = 0$, which can be used to find the temperature of a displaced state given the squeezed state.

The degree of completion for this system is presented in Fig. 19, and shows that it is possible to invert the asymmetry depending on the initial state condition. In the left graph, the displacement and squeezing parameters are smaller than in the right graph, and the asymmetry inversion is partial because cooling is faster only after some time. In the right graph, where the parameters are bigger, cooling is faster than heating for all times. Fig. 20 show the degree of completion of the passive states. Despite the inversion of the total state, the passive states still have heating faster than cooling as expected from

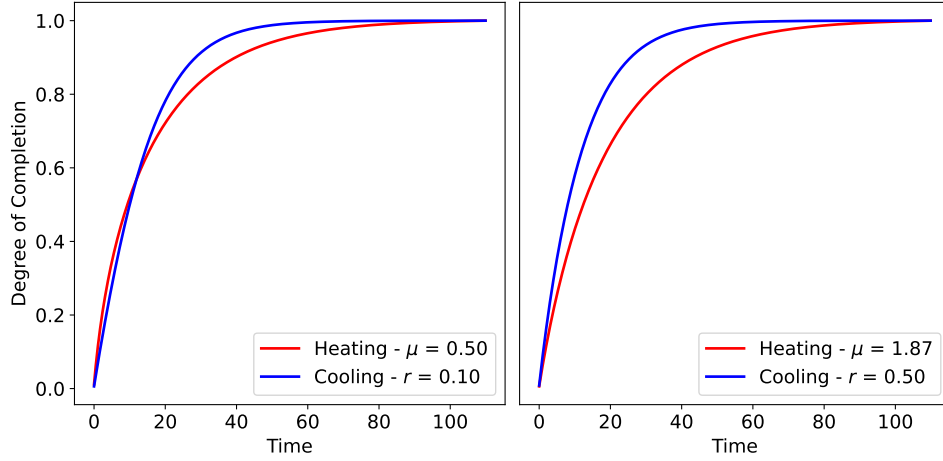


Figure 19 – Degree of completion for heating the displaced state (red) and cooling the squeezed state (blue) with a lower initial ergotropy (left) and a bigger initial ergotropy (right). In the left plot, the crossing between heating and cooling curves indicate an inversion of the asymmetry. In the right plot, the asymmetry is fully inverted for all times, making cooling faster than heating.

Source: By the author

the thermal states results in Sec. 5.3. Also, we notice that increasing the ergotropy of the total state, makes the passive relaxation slower, but it seems to preserve the asymmetry between heating and cooling.

To study the entropy production rate of heating the displaced state, we used the same expressions of Sec. 5.4 and, for the entropy production rate of cooling the squeezed state, we used the expressions of Sec. 5.5. Fig. 21 shows the total entropy production (solid lines), the passive (dashed lines) and the ergotropic (dotted lines) contributions for the entropy production of smaller and bigger parameters, respectively. Given that heating

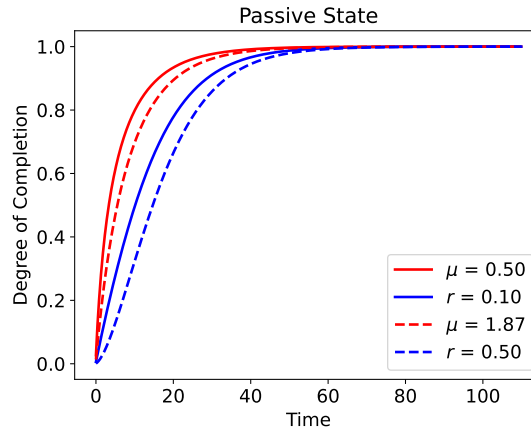


Figure 20 – Degree of completion of the passive state of the heating displaced state (red) and of the cooling squeezed state (blue).

Source: By the author

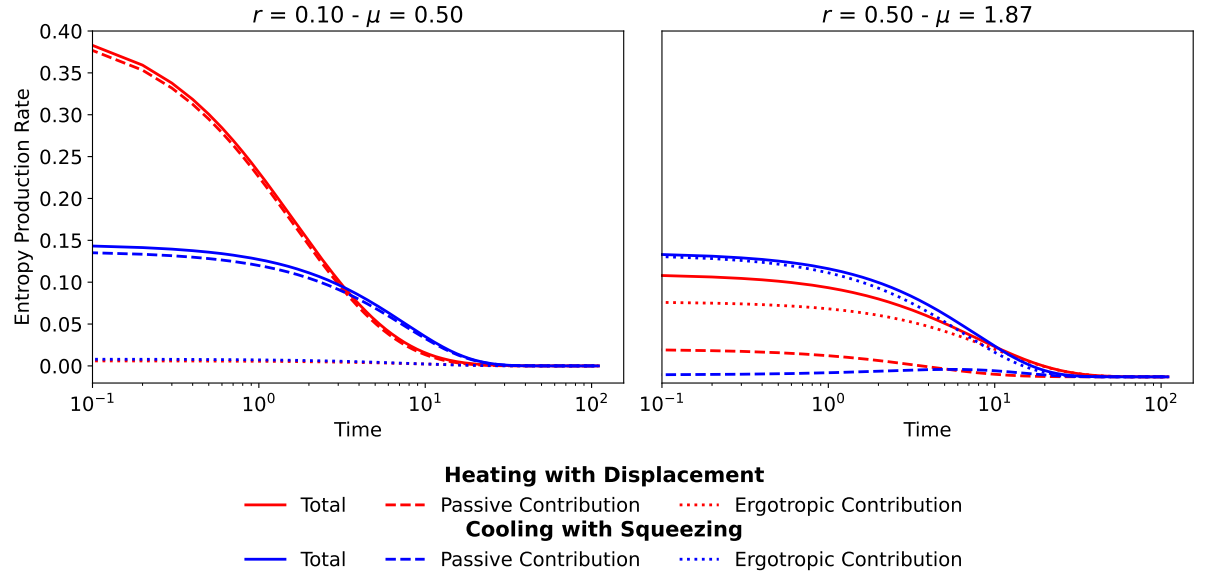


Figure 21 – Left plot shows the entropy production rate of smaller μ and r . Right plot shows the entropy production rate of bigger μ and r . Heating the displaced state is in red and cooling the squeezed state is in blue. The passive contribution is in dashed lines, the ergotropic contribution is in dotted lines, and the total entropy production rate is in solid lines.

Source: By the author

is faster for the passive states, what accelerates cooling to create the inversion must be the ergotropic contribution. Different from the results comparing only squeezing or only displacement, the ergotropic contribution of cooling (squeezing) is initially higher than the one of heating, which explains the full inversion of the asymmetry. Furthermore, for the partial inversion, we see that the ergotropic part has almost no participation in the relaxation and all the asymmetry was generated by the passive state. In this case, heating has higher initial entropy production and is faster than cooling according to the degree of completion in Fig. 19. When the entropy production of cooling cross with heating, we find the partial inversion in the degree of completion. In this case, the initial entropy production could not tell us which process relaxate faster, but its time evolution is still helpful to understand the dynamics. Heating crossing cooling at some time can be a consequence of comparing the relaxation of a displaced state with a squeezed state, as it was similarly observed in the ergotropic Mpemba effect (24).

6 CONCLUSION

The main question investigated in this work was how quantum properties affect the heating-cooling asymmetry in two-interacting qubits and Gaussian systems. The relaxation dynamics was described by the Lindblad master equations and we used the thermal kinematics approach to identify the heating-cooling asymmetry. In this respect, we introduced an adaptation of thermal kinematics to Gaussian systems. In addition to thermal kinematics, we analysed how entropy production can be used to explain which thermal relaxation process is faster.

For the two-interacting-qubits model, we investigated the thermal relaxation of systems in the presence of global coherence and entanglement. By applying Davies maps to this model, the global state always thermalizes to the bath's temperature, but the interaction between the qubits can generate correlations between them, and, as a result, we cannot write the global steady state as the tensor product of qubit's thermal states. However, we can associate an effective temperature to the qubits with the cost of this temperature at equilibrium being lower than the bath's temperature. Another consequence of the qubits interaction generating correlations is that the local entropy production rate becomes negative at some periods, which indicates a local non-Markovian dynamics. We noticed that the thermal relaxation case with non-Markovianity was faster than the no-interaction and full Markovian case. However, we observed that strong interaction causes entanglement, which reduces the asymmetry and make the relaxation slower than the weaker interaction without entanglement generation. Additionally, we saw that initial global coherence can apparently increase the asymmetry, changing the intermediary dynamics, but it does not affect the total equilibration time of the qubits.

For the continuous-variable case, we explored the heating-cooling asymmetry in single-mode Gaussian states, where the investigated resource was ergotropy that separate how much of the nonequilibrium energy is thermodynamically useful. Because the passive state of Gaussian systems is always a thermal state, any quantumness of the system will be related to ergotropic quantities. An interesting consequence of using the ergotropic approach is the possibility of separating the Wigner-Fisher information and the entropy production rate into passive and ergotropic contributions. So, we can separate the asymmetry origin from passive contributions and from ergotropic contribution.

The first Gaussian system we analysed was thermal states, in which we analytically showed that heating is always faster than cooling and where entropy production successfully explained its origin. Second, we compared the relaxation of displaced thermal states and showed that displacement does not affect the asymmetry, being the passive contribution its generator. Again, the total entropy production explained heating being faster

than cooling and separating the contributions showed that the ergotropy was the same for both heating and cooling, which is a consequence of being independent of the system's initial temperature. Then, we study the asymmetry in squeezed thermal states where both ergotropic and passive contributions are affected by the Gaussian operation. In this case, using bigger squeezing parameters resulted in a reduction in the asymmetry of the total state while the passive state had its asymmetry increased. To explain the reduction of the total state asymmetry, we observed that increasing the squeezing parameter increases of the ergotropic contribution but it is not enough to compensate the decrease of the passive contribution, resulting in a total entropy production decrease. Also, increasing the squeezing parameter also increased the difference between the heating and cooling passive state's initial entropy production, resulting in the asymmetry increase. A last result from the asymmetry with squeezed states it that we identified a non-Markovian dynamics for the heating passive state of the big squeezing state and we also observed an acceleration of the dynamics. As a result, once again we have an indication that non-Markovian dynamics can help a faster relaxation. Until this moment, all results showed that heating was faster than cooling, but it is known from literature that this asymmetry can be inverted. This motivated the investigation of how we could have cooling faster than heating in our systems. Using the knowledge that squeezed states relaxate faster than displaced states, we squeezed the hotter state and displaced the colder state. With this combination we inverted the asymmetry partially (for smaller parameters) and totally (for bigger parameters). We learned that the full inversion of the total state is generated only by the ergotropic contribution as the passive states maintain the asymmetry of heating being faster than cooling. Also, we discussed that the partial inversion is actually a consequence of squeezing having a faster relaxation than displaced states, which was already discussed in the ergotropic Mpemba effect (24). In this case, the initial entropy production failed to indicate the faster process, but its time evolution helped understand the partial inversion.

Beyond the investigations done in this work, there is a variety of quantum properties and systems where heating-cooling asymmetry could be generated. Regarding the model of two-interacting qubits, there is also the possibility of investigating other interaction Hamiltonians, such as XXZ, XYZ, and transverse Ising field. These interaction models have anisotropies that may affect the heating-cooling asymmetry, for example, creating an inversion. Another interesting investigation is regarding quantum correlations in systems with more than two levels. It is known that for two-level systems heating is always faster than cooling (28), so it makes sense that global coherence and entanglement have not inverted the asymmetry. However, for systems with more than two levels, the asymmetry can be inverted depending on the energy gaps and degeneracies (28), which brings the question if quantum correlations could also cause the inversion for higher dimension systems. In this work, we also showed that non-Markovianity may accelerate the relaxation dynamics. In this respect, one possible future investigation would be to quan-

tify non-Markovianity to verify if there is a linear correspondence of more information feedback and faster relaxation.

In the context of Gaussian states, we can also investigate how quantum resources, such as coherence, affect the heating-cooling asymmetry. Despite of non-zero ergotropy being an indicator of coherence in Gaussian states, this does not imply that ergotropy can quantify it. Using a proper quantifier can allow us to separate what of the observed behaviour in the relaxation of displaced and squeezed states is actually a consequence of quantum properties. Another interesting extension of our analysis would be investigating the consequences of entanglement in multi-mode Gaussian states. In this case, we have the two-mode squeezing operator that will change the ergotropic contribution of the Wigner-Fisher information, resulting in another effect to investigate in the relaxation process. As we briefly discussed in Sec. 5.5, the passive state of squeezed states can have a non-Markovian dynamics that seems to accelerate the relaxation. Therefore, in addition to the future direction for the discrete case, we can also investigate the relation of non-Markovianity and faster relaxation in Gaussian systems. Another possible future direction would be to study why entropy production is asymmetric. Onsager relations shows that entropy production can be written in terms of currents and Ref. (87) showed that it becomes non-linear and a not even function for arbitrarily far-from-equilibrium Gaussian states. A consequence of being a not even function is that the entropy production depends on the direction of the flow, which could be used to explain why heating and cooling are asymmetric in Gaussian systems.

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APPENDIX A – CONCURRENCE OF AN X-STATE

A general way to define an X-state is

$$\rho = \begin{bmatrix} a & 0 & 0 & f \\ 0 & b & e & 0 \\ 0 & e^* & c & 0 \\ f^* & 0 & 0 & d \end{bmatrix}. \quad (\text{A.1})$$

As we presented in Sec. 4.1, the concurrence of two qubits is defined as

$$C(\rho) = \max\{0, \lambda_1 - \lambda_2 - \lambda_3 - \lambda_4\}, \quad (\text{A.2})$$

where $\lambda_i > \lambda_j$ for $i < j$ are the square root of the eigenvalues of the matrix $R = \rho \tilde{\rho}$ with $\tilde{\rho} = (\sigma_y \otimes \sigma_y) \rho^* (\sigma_y \otimes \sigma_y)$ and ρ^* being the complex conjugate of the density matrix. To start computing the concurrence of an X-state, we first find that

$$\rho^* = \begin{bmatrix} a & 0 & 0 & f^* \\ 0 & b & e^* & 0 \\ 0 & e & c & 0 \\ f & 0 & 0 & d \end{bmatrix}. \quad (\text{A.3})$$

Using that

$$\sigma_y \otimes \sigma_y = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -i \\ i & 0 \end{bmatrix} \otimes \begin{bmatrix} 0 & -i \\ i & 0 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad (\text{A.4})$$

it is possible to compute

$$\begin{aligned} \tilde{\rho} &= (\sigma_y \otimes \sigma_y) \rho^* (\sigma_y \otimes \sigma_y) \\ &= \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} a & 0 & 0 & f^* \\ 0 & b & e^* & 0 \\ 0 & e & c & 0 \\ f & 0 & 0 & d \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \\ &= \begin{bmatrix} d & 0 & 0 & f \\ 0 & c & e & 0 \\ 0 & e^* & b & 0 \\ f^* & 0 & 0 & a \end{bmatrix}. \end{aligned} \quad (\text{A.5})$$

As a result, we find

$$\begin{aligned}
 R &= \rho \tilde{\rho} \\
 &= \begin{bmatrix} a & 0 & 0 & f \\ 0 & b & e & 0 \\ 0 & e^* & c & 0 \\ f^* & 0 & 0 & d \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} d & 0 & 0 & f \\ 0 & c & e & 0 \\ 0 & e^* & b & 0 \\ f^* & 0 & 0 & a \end{bmatrix} \\
 &= \begin{bmatrix} ad + |f|^2 & 0 & 0 & 2af \\ 0 & bc + |e|^2 & 2be & 0 \\ 0 & 2ce^* & bc + |e|^2 & 0 \\ 2df^* & 0 & 0 & ad + |f|^2 \end{bmatrix}.
 \end{aligned} \tag{A.6}$$

To obtain the concurrence, we must use the eigenvalues of R : $\lambda_1 = ad + |f|^2(1 + 2\sqrt{ad})$, $\lambda_2 = ad + |f|^2(1 - 2\sqrt{ad})$, $\lambda_3 = bc + |e|^2(1 + 2\sqrt{bc})$, and $\lambda_4 = bc + |e|^2(1 - 2\sqrt{bc})$. Without specifying the matrix elements of ρ , we cannot go further. But the next steps are taking the square root of each eigenvalue of R , organizing them in decreasing order and substituting in Eq. (4.7).

APPENDIX B – LINDBLAD OPERATORS FOR THE TWO INTERACTING QUBITS MODEL.

In Chap. 2, we showed two examples of Lindblad operators for the Davies map of one qubit and one harmonic oscillator in contact with a thermal bath. In this appendix, we will show how these operators are for the two interacting qubits model used in Chap. 4.

The Hamiltonian from Eq. (4.8) in the matrix-form is

$$H_S = \omega_0 \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \end{bmatrix} = \sum_i \lambda_i |i\rangle \langle i|, \quad (\text{B.1})$$

where the eigenvalues $\lambda_0 = -\omega_0$, $\lambda_1 = \lambda_2 = 0$, and $\lambda_3 = \omega_0$. The eigenvectors are

$$|0\rangle = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{bmatrix} \quad |1\rangle = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \quad |2\rangle = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix} \quad |3\rangle = \begin{bmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}. \quad (\text{B.2})$$

Now, we can substitute these quantities in Eqs. (2.41) and (2.42) to find our jump operators L_{mn}^1 and L_{mn}^2 , respectively. Note that we have not defined an operator A for this model and that in the expressions we would need its matrix element. Given that this matrix element is a constant, we can include it in the other constant Γ . Also, to compute the Bose-Einstein distribution we use $\omega = \lambda_m - \lambda_n$ with $m > n$ with eigenvalues in increasing ordering and also removing when $\omega = 0$ because of degeneracies in the Hamiltonian. As a result, the jump operators used in the results from Chap. 4 are

$$L_{10}^1 = \sqrt{\Gamma(\bar{n}(\omega_0) + 1)} |0\rangle \langle 1| \quad L_{10}^2 = \sqrt{\Gamma\bar{n}(\omega_0)} |1\rangle \langle 0| \quad (\text{B.3})$$

$$L_{20}^1 = \sqrt{\Gamma(\bar{n}(\omega_0) + 1)} |0\rangle \langle 2| \quad L_{20}^2 = \sqrt{\Gamma\bar{n}(\omega_0)} |2\rangle \langle 0| \quad (\text{B.4})$$

$$L_{30}^1 = \sqrt{\Gamma(\bar{n}(2\omega_0) + 1)} |0\rangle \langle 3| \quad L_{30}^2 = \sqrt{\Gamma\bar{n}(2\omega_0)} |3\rangle \langle 0| \quad (\text{B.5})$$

$$L_{31}^1 = \sqrt{\Gamma(\bar{n}(\omega_0) + 1)} |1\rangle \langle 3| \quad L_{31}^2 = \sqrt{\Gamma\bar{n}(\omega_0)} |3\rangle \langle 1| \quad (\text{B.6})$$

$$L_{32}^1 = \sqrt{\Gamma(\bar{n}(\omega_0) + 1)} |2\rangle \langle 3| \quad L_{32}^2 = \sqrt{\Gamma\bar{n}(\omega_0)} |3\rangle \langle 2|. \quad (\text{B.7})$$

APPENDIX C – MEAN VECTOR AND COVARIANCE MATRIX: FROM THE QUADRATURE BASIS TO THE COMPLEX PHASE-SPACE BASIS.

In Chap. 5, we defined the mean vector and covariance matrix in the quadrature basis, which for a single mode has the form

$$\mathbf{v} = \langle R \rangle = (\langle q \rangle, \langle p \rangle)^T \quad (\text{C.1})$$

$$\Theta_{ij} = \frac{1}{2} \langle R_i R_j + R_j R_i \rangle - \langle R_i \rangle \langle R_j \rangle. \quad (\text{C.2})$$

To change from this basis to the complex phase-space basis, we use Eqs. (5.2) and (5.3) to build the transformation matrix

$$L = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ -i & i \end{bmatrix}. \quad (\text{C.3})$$

This leads to the mean vector

$$\mathbf{v}_\alpha = L^\dagger \mathbf{v} = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \begin{bmatrix} 1 & i \\ 1 & -i \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} \langle q \rangle \\ \langle p \rangle \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} \langle a \rangle \\ \langle a^\dagger \rangle \end{bmatrix}. \quad (\text{C.4})$$

For the covariance matrix, we have

$$\begin{aligned} \Theta_\alpha &= L^\dagger \Theta L \\ &= \frac{1}{2} \begin{bmatrix} 1 & i \\ 1 & -i \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} \Theta_{00} & \Theta_{01} \\ \Theta_{10} & \Theta_{11} \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ -i & i \end{bmatrix} \\ &= \frac{1}{2} \begin{bmatrix} \Theta_{00} + \Theta_{11} & \Theta_{00} - \Theta_{11} + 2i\Theta_{01} \\ \Theta_{00} - \Theta_{11} - 2i\Theta_{10} & \Theta_{00} + \Theta_{11} \end{bmatrix}. \end{aligned} \quad (\text{C.5})$$

Knowing that $\Theta_{ij} = \frac{1}{2} \langle R_i R_j + R_j R_i \rangle - \langle R_i \rangle \langle R_j \rangle$, each term of the covariance matrix becomes

$$\begin{aligned} \Theta_{00} &= \langle R_0^2 \rangle - \langle R_0 \rangle^2 = \langle q^2 \rangle - \langle q \rangle^2 \\ &= \frac{1}{2} \langle a^{\dagger 2} + a^\dagger a + a a^\dagger + a^2 \rangle - \frac{1}{2} (\langle a^\dagger \rangle^2 + \langle a \rangle^2 + 2 \langle a^\dagger \rangle \langle a \rangle) \end{aligned} \quad (\text{C.6})$$

$$\begin{aligned} \Theta_{11} &= \langle R_1^2 \rangle - \langle R_1 \rangle^2 = \langle p^2 \rangle - \langle p \rangle^2 \\ &= -\frac{1}{2} \langle a^{\dagger 2} - a^\dagger a - a a^\dagger + a^2 \rangle + \frac{1}{2} (\langle a^\dagger \rangle^2 + \langle a \rangle^2 - 2 \langle a^\dagger \rangle \langle a \rangle) \end{aligned} \quad (\text{C.7})$$

$$\begin{aligned} \Theta_{01} &= \Theta_{10} = \frac{1}{2} (\langle R_0 R_1 \rangle + \langle R_1 R_0 \rangle) - \langle R_0 \rangle \langle R_1 \rangle \\ &= \frac{i}{2} (\langle a^{\dagger 2} \rangle - \langle a^\dagger \rangle^2 - \langle a^2 \rangle + \langle a \rangle^2). \end{aligned} \quad (\text{C.8})$$

By substituting these matrix elements in Eq. (C.5), we find that the covariance matrix in the complex phase-space basis is

$$\Theta_{\alpha} = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{1}{2}(\langle a^{\dagger}a \rangle + \langle aa^{\dagger} \rangle) - \langle a^{\dagger} \rangle \langle a \rangle & \langle a^2 \rangle - \langle a \rangle^2 \\ \langle a^{\dagger 2} \rangle - \langle a^{\dagger} \rangle^2 & \frac{1}{2}(\langle a^{\dagger}a \rangle + \langle aa^{\dagger} \rangle) - \langle a^{\dagger} \rangle \langle a \rangle \end{bmatrix}. \quad (\text{C.9})$$

APPENDIX D – WIGNER ENTROPY AND WIGNER RELATIVE ENTROPY IN TERMS OF THE MEAN VECTOR AND COVARIANCE MATRIX

In this appendix we show how to write the Wigner entropy,

$$S_W(W(\mathbf{x})) = - \int W(\mathbf{x}) \ln W(\mathbf{x}) d^2\mathbf{x}, \quad (5.33)$$

and the Wigner relative entropy,

$$K[W_1(\mathbf{x})||W_2(\mathbf{x})] = \int W_1(\mathbf{x}) \ln \frac{W_1(\mathbf{x})}{W_2(\mathbf{x})} d^2\mathbf{x} \quad (5.35)$$

in terms of the mean vector and covariance matrix. These calculations are based on Ref. (24). Remembering that the Wigner distribution can be written as

$$W(\mathbf{x}) = \frac{1}{\pi^N \sqrt{|\Theta|}} \exp \left(-(\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v})^T \Theta^{-1} (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v}) \right), \quad (5.14)$$

we can use that $\langle f(\mathbf{x}) \rangle_W = \int d\mathbf{x} W(\mathbf{x}) f(\mathbf{x})$ to find*

$$\langle \ln W(\mathbf{x}) \rangle = -\frac{1}{2} \langle (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v})^\dagger \Theta^{-1} (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v}) \rangle - \langle \ln \pi \rangle - \frac{1}{2} \langle \ln |\Theta| \rangle. \quad (D.1)$$

To compute the first term, we can introduce the completion relation $\sum_n \mathbf{n} \mathbf{n}^\dagger = \mathbb{I}$ as

$$\begin{aligned} \langle (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v})^\dagger \Theta^{-1} (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v}) \rangle &= \left\langle \sum_n (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v})^\dagger \mathbf{n} \mathbf{n}^\dagger \Theta^{-1} (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v}) \right\rangle \\ &= \left\langle \sum_n \mathbf{n}^\dagger \Theta^{-1} (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v}) (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v})^\dagger \mathbf{n} \right\rangle \\ &= \langle \text{Tr}[\Theta^{-1} (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v}) (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v})^\dagger] \rangle \\ &= \text{Tr}[\Theta^{-1} \langle (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v}) (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v})^\dagger \rangle]. \end{aligned} \quad (D.2)$$

To solve this mean value, we can remember that, for a single mode Gaussian state, $\mathbf{x} = (x, x^*)^T$ and $\mathbf{v} = (\langle a \rangle, \langle a^\dagger \rangle)^T$, so

$$\begin{aligned} \langle (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v}) (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v})^\dagger \rangle &= \int d\mathbf{x} W(\mathbf{x}) \begin{bmatrix} (x - \langle a \rangle)(x^* - \langle a^\dagger \rangle) & (x - \langle a \rangle)^2 \\ (x^* - \langle a^\dagger \rangle)^2 & (x^* - \langle a^\dagger \rangle)(x - \langle a \rangle) \end{bmatrix} \\ &= \begin{bmatrix} \frac{1}{2}(\langle a^\dagger a \rangle + \langle a a^\dagger \rangle) - \langle a^\dagger \rangle \langle a \rangle & \langle a^2 \rangle - \langle a \rangle^2 \\ \langle a^{\dagger 2} \rangle - \langle a^\dagger \rangle^2 & \frac{1}{2}(\langle a^\dagger a \rangle + \langle a a^\dagger \rangle) - \langle a^\dagger \rangle \langle a \rangle \end{bmatrix} \\ &= \Theta, \end{aligned} \quad (D.3)$$

* In some equations, we are using only one Gaussian distribution, which allow us to simplify the notation by omitting the subscripts W . The subscripts will only be used to clarify when we are using different distributions.

where we used the properties

$$\int d\mathbf{x} W(\mathbf{x}) x = \langle a \rangle \quad \int d\mathbf{x} W(\mathbf{x}) x^* = \langle a^\dagger \rangle, \quad (\text{D.4})$$

$$\int d\mathbf{x} W(\mathbf{x}) x^2 = \langle a^2 \rangle \quad \int d\mathbf{x} W(\mathbf{x}) x^{*2} = \langle a^{\dagger 2} \rangle, \quad (\text{D.5})$$

$$\int d\mathbf{x} W(\mathbf{x}) x^* x = \frac{1}{2} (\langle a^\dagger a \rangle + \langle a a^\dagger \rangle). \quad (\text{D.6})$$

Now, we can use this result to find that

$$\langle (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v})^\dagger \Theta^{-1} (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v}) \rangle = \text{Tr}[\Theta^{-1} \Theta] = 2. \quad (\text{D.7})$$

Introducing this result into Eq. (D.1), we obtain that the Wigner entropy is

$$S_W(W(\mathbf{x})) = -\langle \ln W(\mathbf{x}) \rangle = 1 + \ln \pi + \frac{1}{2} \ln |\Theta|. \quad (\text{D.8})$$

We can use this result of the Wigner entropy to rewrite the Wigner relative entropy as[†]

$$K[W_1(\mathbf{x}) || W_2(\mathbf{x})] = -S_W(W_1) - \langle \ln W_2 \rangle_{W_1}, \quad (\text{D.9})$$

with this last term being

$$\begin{aligned} \langle \ln W_2 \rangle_{W_1} &= -\frac{1}{2} \langle (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v}_2)^\dagger \Theta_2^{-1} (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v}_2) \rangle_{W_1} - \langle \ln \pi \rangle_{W_1} - \frac{1}{2} \langle \ln |\Theta_2| \rangle_{W_1} \\ &= -\frac{1}{2} \text{Tr}[\Theta_2^{-1} \langle (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v}_2)(\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v}_2)^\dagger \rangle_{W_1}] - \ln \pi - \frac{1}{2} \ln |\Theta_2|, \end{aligned} \quad (\text{D.10})$$

where we used the completion relation as before in Eq. (D.2) and $\mathbf{v}_2 = (\langle a \rangle_{W_2}, \langle a^\dagger \rangle_{W_2})^T$. So, the mean value in the first term of Eq. D.10 is $\langle (\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v}_2)(\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{v}_2)^\dagger \rangle_{W_1} = \langle \mathbf{x} \mathbf{x}^\dagger \rangle_{W_1} - \langle \mathbf{x} \mathbf{v}_2^\dagger \rangle_{W_1} - \langle \mathbf{v}_2 \mathbf{x}^\dagger \rangle_{W_1} + \langle \mathbf{v}_2 \mathbf{v}_2^\dagger \rangle_{W_1}$. To solve each of these terms, we use the properties D.4, D.5, and D.4, finding

$$\begin{aligned} \langle \mathbf{x} \mathbf{x}^\dagger \rangle_{W_1} &= \int d\mathbf{x} W_1(\mathbf{x}) \begin{bmatrix} x x^* & x^2 \\ x^{*2} & x^* x \end{bmatrix} \\ &= \begin{bmatrix} \frac{1}{2} (\langle a^\dagger a \rangle_{W_1} + \langle a a^\dagger \rangle_{W_1}) & \langle a^2 \rangle_{W_1} \\ \langle a^{\dagger 2} \rangle_{W_1} & \frac{1}{2} (\langle a^\dagger a \rangle_{W_1} + \langle a a^\dagger \rangle_{W_1}) \end{bmatrix} = \Theta_1 + \mathbf{v}_1 \mathbf{v}_1^\dagger, \end{aligned} \quad (\text{D.11})$$

$$\langle \mathbf{x} \mathbf{v}_2^\dagger \rangle_{W_1} = \langle \mathbf{x} \rangle_{W_1} \mathbf{v}_2^\dagger = \int d\mathbf{x} W_1(\mathbf{x}) \begin{bmatrix} x \\ x^* \end{bmatrix} \mathbf{v}_2^\dagger = \begin{bmatrix} \langle a \rangle_{W_1} \\ \langle a^\dagger \rangle_{W_1} \end{bmatrix} \mathbf{v}_2^\dagger = \mathbf{v}_1 \mathbf{v}_2^\dagger, \quad (\text{D.12})$$

$$\langle \mathbf{v}_2 \mathbf{x}^\dagger \rangle_{W_1} = \mathbf{v}_2 \langle \mathbf{x}^\dagger \rangle_{W_1} = \mathbf{v}_2 \int d\mathbf{x} W_1(\mathbf{x}) \begin{bmatrix} x^* & x \end{bmatrix} = \mathbf{v}_2 \begin{bmatrix} \langle a^\dagger \rangle_{W_1} & \langle a \rangle_{W_1} \end{bmatrix} = \mathbf{v}_2 \mathbf{v}_1^\dagger, \quad (\text{D.13})$$

[†] Note that here we are using subscripts to differentiate the Gaussian distributions used for the expectation value.

$$\langle \mathbf{v}_2 \mathbf{v}_2^\dagger \rangle_{W_1} = \mathbf{v}_2 \mathbf{v}_2^\dagger. \quad (\text{D.14})$$

As a result, Eq. (D.10) becomes

$$\begin{aligned} \langle \ln W_2 \rangle_{W_1} &= -\frac{1}{2} \text{Tr}[\Theta_2^{-1}(\Theta_1 + \mathbf{v}_1 \mathbf{v}_1^\dagger - \mathbf{v}_1 \mathbf{v}_2^\dagger - \mathbf{v}_2 \mathbf{v}_1^\dagger + \mathbf{v}_2 \mathbf{v}_2^\dagger)] - \ln \pi - \frac{1}{2} \ln |\Theta_2| \\ &= -\frac{1}{2} \text{Tr}[\Theta_2^{-1} \Theta_1 + \Theta_2^{-1}(\mathbf{v}_1 - \mathbf{v}_2)(\mathbf{v}_1 - \mathbf{v}_2)^\dagger] - \ln \pi - \frac{1}{2} \ln |\Theta_2| \\ &= -\frac{1}{2} (\text{Tr}[\Theta_2^{-1} \Theta_1] + (\mathbf{v}_1 - \mathbf{v}_2)^\dagger \Theta_2^{-1} (\mathbf{v}_1 - \mathbf{v}_2)) - \ln \pi - \frac{1}{2} \ln |\Theta_2|. \end{aligned} \quad (\text{D.15})$$

Substituting this result and Eq. (D.8) in Eq. (D.9), we obtain that the Wigner relative entropy in terms of the mean vector and covariance matrix is

$$K[W_1(\mathbf{x})||W_2(\mathbf{x})] = -1 + \frac{1}{2} \left[(\mathbf{v}_1 - \mathbf{v}_2)^\dagger \Theta_2^{-1} (\mathbf{v}_1 - \mathbf{v}_2) + \text{Tr}[\Theta_2^{-1} \Theta_1] + \ln \frac{|\Theta_2|}{|\Theta_1|} \right]. \quad (\text{D.16})$$

APPENDIX E – DERIVATION OF THE WIGNER-FISHER INFORMATION

The Wigner-Fisher information can be obtained from similar calculations as the ones of Sec 3.2. First, we consider two close Wigner distributions and make a second order Taylor expansion in a parameter θ of $W(\mathbf{x}, \theta + d\theta)$, finding that the Wigner relative entropy (defined in the first equality of Eq. (5.35)) becomes

$$\begin{aligned}
K[W(\mathbf{x}, \theta + d\theta) || W(\mathbf{x}, \theta)] &= \int W(\mathbf{x}, \theta + d\theta) \ln \left(\frac{W(\mathbf{x}, \theta + d\theta)}{W(\mathbf{x}, \theta)} \right) d^2\mathbf{x} \\
&= \int [W(\mathbf{x}, \theta) + \partial_\theta W(\mathbf{x}, \theta)d\theta + \frac{1}{2}\partial_\theta^2 W(\mathbf{x}, \theta)d\theta^2 + \mathcal{O}(d\theta^3)] \\
&\times \left[\frac{\partial_\theta W(\mathbf{x}, \theta)}{W(\mathbf{x}, \theta)}d\theta + \frac{1}{2} \frac{\partial_\theta^2 W(\mathbf{x}, \theta)}{W(\mathbf{x}, \theta)}d\theta^2 - \frac{1}{2} \frac{(\partial_\theta W(\mathbf{x}, \theta)d\theta)^2}{W(\mathbf{x}, \theta)^2} + \mathcal{O}(d\theta^3) \right] d^2\mathbf{x} \quad (\text{E.1}) \\
&= \frac{1}{2} \int \frac{(\partial_\theta W(\mathbf{x}, \theta)d\theta)^2}{W(\mathbf{x}, \theta)} d^2\mathbf{x} + \mathcal{O}(d\theta^3) \\
&= \frac{1}{2} \mathcal{I}_W(\theta) d\theta^2 + \mathcal{O}(d\theta^3),
\end{aligned}$$

where we used $\ln(1+x) = x - \frac{1}{2}x^2 + \mathcal{O}(x^3)$ in the second line and that $\int W(\mathbf{x}, \theta) d^2\mathbf{x} = 1$ in the third line. In the last equality, we identify the Wigner-Fisher information as

$$\mathcal{I}_W(\theta) = \int \frac{(\partial_\theta W(\mathbf{x}, \theta)d\theta)^2}{W(\mathbf{x}, \theta)} d^2\mathbf{x}. \quad (\text{E.2})$$

Additionally, we can also write the Wigner-Fisher information in terms of the mean vector and the covariance matrix. One way to do it, is expanding the last line of Eq. (5.35), that in our case is

$$\begin{aligned}
K[W(\mathbf{x}, \theta + d\theta) || W(\mathbf{x}, \theta)] &= -1 + \frac{1}{2} \left[(\mathbf{v}_{\theta+d\theta} - \mathbf{v}_\theta)^\dagger \Theta_\theta^{-1} (\mathbf{v}_{\theta+d\theta} - \mathbf{v}_\theta) \right. \\
&\quad \left. + \text{Tr}(\Theta_\theta^{-1} \Theta_{\theta+d\theta}) + \ln \frac{|\Theta_\theta|}{|\Theta_{\theta+d\theta}|} \right]. \quad (\text{E.3})
\end{aligned}$$

First, we use the second order Taylor expansion of

$$\mathbf{v}_{\theta+d\theta} \approx \mathbf{v}_\theta + \left(\frac{d\mathbf{v}_\theta}{d\theta} \right) d\theta + \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{d^2\mathbf{v}_\theta}{d\theta^2} \right) d\theta^2, \quad (\text{E.4})$$

$$\Theta_{\theta+d\theta} \approx \Theta_\theta + \left(\frac{d\Theta_\theta}{d\theta} \right) d\theta + \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{d^2\Theta_\theta}{d\theta^2} \right) d\theta^2, \quad (\text{E.5})$$

$$\ln(|\Theta_{\theta+d\theta}|) \approx \ln(|\Theta_\theta|) + \left(\frac{d}{d\theta} \ln(|\Theta_\theta|) \right) d\theta + \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{d^2}{d\theta^2} \ln(|\Theta_\theta|) \right) d\theta^2, \quad (\text{E.6})$$

such that the mean vector term in Eq. (E.3) becomes

$$(\mathbf{v}_{\theta+d\theta} - \mathbf{v}_\theta)^\dagger \Theta_\theta^{-1} (\mathbf{v}_{\theta+d\theta} - \mathbf{v}_\theta) \approx \dot{\mathbf{v}}_\theta^\dagger \Theta_\theta^{-1} \dot{\mathbf{v}}_\theta d\theta^2, \quad (\text{E.7})$$

and the trace term in Eq. (E.3) becomes

$$\begin{aligned}\text{Tr}(\Theta_\theta^{-1}\Theta_{\theta+d\theta}) &\approx \text{Tr}\left[\Theta_\theta^{-1}\Theta_\theta + \Theta_\theta^{-1}\dot{\Theta}_\theta d\theta + \frac{1}{2}\Theta_\theta^{-1}\ddot{\Theta}_\theta d\theta^2\right] \\ &= 2 + \text{Tr}\left[\Theta_\theta^{-1}\dot{\Theta}_\theta\right] d\theta + \frac{1}{2}\text{Tr}\left[\Theta_\theta^{-1}\ddot{\Theta}_\theta\right] d\theta^2.\end{aligned}\quad (\text{E.8})$$

To rewrite the logarithm term in Eq. (E.3), we will need the identities (65)

$$\frac{d}{d\theta} \ln(|\Theta_\theta|) = \text{Tr}\left[\Theta_\theta^{-1}\dot{\Theta}_\theta\right] \quad (\text{E.9})$$

$$\frac{d^2}{d\theta^2} \ln(|\Theta_\theta|) = \text{Tr}\left[\Theta_\theta^{-1}\ddot{\Theta}_\theta + \Theta_\theta^{-1}\dot{\Theta}_\theta\Theta_\theta^{-1}\dot{\Theta}_\theta\right], \quad (\text{E.10})$$

which can be used in Eq. (E.6), resulting in

$$\ln(|\Theta_{\theta+d\theta}|) \approx \ln(|\Theta_\theta|) + \text{Tr}\left[\Theta_\theta^{-1}\dot{\Theta}_\theta\right] d\theta + \frac{1}{2}\text{Tr}\left[\Theta_\theta^{-1}\ddot{\Theta}_\theta + \Theta_\theta^{-1}\dot{\Theta}_\theta\Theta_\theta^{-1}\dot{\Theta}_\theta\right] d\theta^2, \quad (\text{E.11})$$

that allow us to rewrite the logarithm term as

$$\ln \frac{|\Theta_\theta|}{|\Theta_{\theta+d\theta}|} \approx -\text{Tr}\left[\Theta_\theta^{-1}\dot{\Theta}_\theta\right] d\theta - \frac{1}{2}\text{Tr}\left[\Theta_\theta^{-1}\ddot{\Theta}_\theta\right] d\theta^2 + \text{Tr}\left[(\Theta_\theta^{-1}\dot{\Theta}_\theta)^2\right] d\theta^2. \quad (\text{E.12})$$

As a result, the Wigner relative entropy expanded in terms of the mean vector and covariance matrix is

$$K[W(\mathbf{x}, \theta + d\theta) || W(\mathbf{x}, \theta)] \approx \frac{1}{2}\{\dot{\mathbf{v}}_t^\dagger \Theta_t^{-1} \dot{\mathbf{v}}_t + \text{Tr}[(\Theta_t^{-1} \dot{\Theta}_t)^2]\} d\theta^2, \quad (\text{E.13})$$

in which we identify the Wigner-Fisher information as

$$\mathcal{I}_W(t) = \dot{\mathbf{v}}_t^\dagger \Theta_t^{-1} \dot{\mathbf{v}}_t + \text{Tr}[(\Theta_t^{-1} \dot{\Theta}_t)^2]. \quad (\text{E.14})$$

APPENDIX F – DAVIES MAP SOLUTION FOR GAUSSIAN SYSTEMS

In Sec. 5.2, we discussed how to write a Davies map dynamics for Gaussian systems in terms of mean vector and covariance matrix. There, we gave a general solution for the differential equation (5.19) and the Lyapunov equation (5.26). In this appendix, we show how to compute the specific solutions for the three cases we are studying: initially thermal state, displaced state, and squeezed state.

A single mode Gaussian state with Hamiltonian $H = \omega a^\dagger a$ is in a thermal state with inverse temperature β_i (and $f(\beta_i) = \bar{n} + 1/2$) equal to

$$\rho_{th} = \frac{e^{-\beta H}}{\mathcal{Z}} = \sum_n p_n |n\rangle \langle n|, \quad (\text{F.1})$$

where $p_n = (1 - e^{-\beta\omega})e^{-\beta\omega n}$. To solve the differential equation for the mean vector, we properties the $a|n\rangle = \sqrt{n}|n-1\rangle$ and $a^\dagger|n\rangle = \sqrt{n+1}|n+1\rangle$ to compute

$$\begin{aligned} \langle a \rangle_{th} &= \text{Tr}[a\rho_{th}] \\ &= \sum_k \sum_n p_n \langle k| a |n\rangle \langle n| k\rangle \\ &= \sum_n p_n \langle n| a |n\rangle \\ &= \sum_n p_n \sqrt{n} \langle n| |n-1\rangle = 0, \end{aligned} \quad (\text{F.2})$$

and we can do the same for its complex conjugate to find $\langle a^\dagger \rangle_{th} = 0$. As a result, the mean vector for this case is $\mathbf{v}_{th} = 0$. Now, for the covariance matrix, we follow similar steps to find

$$\langle a^2 \rangle_{th} = 0 \quad (\text{F.3})$$

$$\langle a^{\dagger 2} \rangle_{th} = 0 \quad (\text{F.4})$$

$$\langle a^\dagger a \rangle_{th} = \sum_n n p_n = (1 - e^{-\beta\omega}) \sum_n n e^{-\beta\omega n} = (1 - e^{-\beta\omega}) \frac{e^{-\beta\omega}}{(1 - e^{-\beta\omega})^2} = \bar{n} \quad (\text{F.5})$$

$$\langle a a^\dagger \rangle_{th} = \sum_n (n+1) p_n = (1 - e^{-\beta\omega}) \sum_n (n+1) e^{-\beta\omega n} = \bar{n} + 1. \quad (\text{F.6})$$

From these calculations, the covariance matrix at $t = 0$ is

$$\Theta_0 = \begin{bmatrix} f(\beta_i) & 0 \\ 0 & f(\beta_i) \end{bmatrix}. \quad (\text{F.7})$$

So, we find that $d_0 = 0$ in Eq. (5.29) and that $c_0 = f(\beta_i) - f(\beta)$, resulting in $\Theta_t h = \Delta_\beta \mathbb{I}$ with $\Delta_\beta = (f(\beta_i) - f(\beta))e^{-\Gamma t} + f(\beta)$ where β is the final inverse temperature.

For the case in which the initial state is displaced as $\rho_d = D(\mu)\rho_{th}D^\dagger(\mu)$ with $D(\mu)$ defined in Eq. (5.7), the covariance matrix remains unchanged and the solution is the same as above. To find the solution for the mean vector, we use the properties

$$D^\dagger(\mu)aD(\mu) = a + \mu \quad (\text{F.8})$$

$$D^\dagger(\mu)a^\dagger D(\mu) = a^\dagger + \mu^*, \quad (\text{F.9})$$

which can be obtained by using the Baker-Campbell-Hausdorff relation. Now, we can compute

$$\langle a \rangle_d = \text{Tr}[a\rho_d] = \text{Tr}[D^\dagger(\mu)aD(\mu)\rho_{th}] = \text{Tr}[(a + \mu)\rho_{th}] = \mu \quad (\text{F.10})$$

$$\langle a^\dagger \rangle_d = \text{Tr}[a^\dagger\rho_d] = \text{Tr}[D^\dagger(\mu)a^\dagger D(\mu)\rho_{th}] = \text{Tr}[(a^\dagger + \mu^*)\rho_{th}] = \mu^*, \quad (\text{F.11})$$

such that $\mathbf{v}_0 = (\mu, \mu^*)^T$, which can be used in Eq. (5.27) to find that $\mathbf{v}_d = (\mu_t, \mu_t^*)^T$ with $\mu_t = \mu e^{-(i\omega + \Gamma/2)t}$.

For the squeezing case, the initial state is given by $\rho_s = S(z)\rho_{th}S^\dagger(z)$ with $S(z)$ defined in Eq. (5.15) and $z = re^{i\phi}$, which changes only the covariance matrix solution, keeping $\mathbf{v}_s = 0$ like in the thermal state case. For these squeezing operators, we can use the Bugoliubov transformation,

$$S^\dagger(z)aS(z) = a \cosh(r) - a^\dagger e^{i\phi} \sinh(r) \quad (\text{F.12})$$

$$S^\dagger(z)a^\dagger S(z) = a^\dagger \cosh(r) - a e^{-i\phi} \sinh(r), \quad (\text{F.13})$$

to find

$$\begin{aligned} \langle a^\dagger a \rangle_s &= \text{Tr}[a^\dagger a \rho_s] = \text{Tr}[a^\dagger a S(z)\rho_{th}S^\dagger(z)] \\ &= \text{Tr}[S^\dagger(z)a^\dagger S(z)S^\dagger(z)aS(z)\rho_{th}] \\ &= \text{Tr}[(a^\dagger \cosh(r) - a e^{-i\phi} \sinh(r))(a \cosh(r) - a^\dagger e^{i\phi} \sinh(r))\rho_{th}] \\ &= \text{Tr}[(\cosh^2(r)a^\dagger a - e^{i\phi} \cosh(r) \sinh(r)a^{\dagger 2} - e^{-i\phi} \cosh(r) \sinh(r)a^2 \\ &\quad + \sinh^2(r)aa^\dagger)\rho_{th}] \\ &= \cosh^2(r) \langle a^\dagger a \rangle_{th} - e^{i\phi} \cosh(r) \sinh(r) \langle a^{\dagger 2} \rangle_{th} - e^{-i\phi} \cosh(r) \sinh(r) \langle a^2 \rangle_{th} \\ &\quad + \sinh^2(r) \langle aa^\dagger \rangle_{th} \\ &= \bar{n} \cosh^2(r) + (\bar{n} + 1) \sinh^2(r). \end{aligned} \quad (\text{F.14})$$

Using the anticommutator $[a, a^\dagger] = 1$, we find

$$\langle aa^\dagger \rangle_s = \langle a^\dagger a \rangle_s + 1 = \bar{n} \cosh^2(r) + (\bar{n} + 1) \sinh^2(r) + 1. \quad (\text{F.15})$$

and the last mean values we need are

$$\begin{aligned}
\langle a^2 \rangle_s &= \text{Tr}[a^2 \rho_s] \\
&= \text{Tr}[S^\dagger(z) a S(z) S^\dagger(z) a S(z) \rho_{th}] \\
&= \text{Tr}[(a \cosh(r) - a^\dagger e^{i\phi} \sinh(r))(a \cosh(r) - a^\dagger e^{i\phi} \sinh(r)) \rho_{th}] \\
&= \cosh^2(r) \langle a^2 \rangle_{th} - e^{i\phi} \cosh(r) \sinh(r) (\langle a^\dagger a \rangle_{th} + \langle a a^\dagger \rangle_{th}) \\
&\quad + e^{2i\phi} \sinh^2(r) \langle a^{\dagger 2} \rangle_{th} \\
&= -\frac{1}{2} e^{i\phi} \sinh(2r) (2\bar{n} + 1),
\end{aligned} \tag{F.16}$$

$$\begin{aligned}
\langle a^{\dagger 2} \rangle_s &= \text{Tr}[a^{\dagger 2} \rho_s] \\
&= \text{Tr}[S^\dagger(z) a^\dagger S(z) S^\dagger(z) a^\dagger S(z) \rho_{th}] \\
&= \text{Tr}[(a^\dagger \cosh(r) - a e^{-i\phi} \sinh(r))(a^\dagger \cosh(r) - a e^{-i\phi} \sinh(r)) \rho_{th}] \\
&= \cosh^2(r) \langle a^{\dagger 2} \rangle_{th} - e^{-i\phi} \cosh(r) \sinh(r) (\langle a^\dagger a \rangle_{th} + \langle a a^\dagger \rangle_{th}) \\
&\quad + e^{-2i\phi} \sinh^2(r) \langle a^2 \rangle_{th} \\
&= -\frac{1}{2} e^{-i\phi} \sinh(2r) (2\bar{n} + 1).
\end{aligned} \tag{F.17}$$

Combining these results as previously done, we find

$$\Theta_t^{11} = \Theta_t^{22} = (f(\beta_i) \cosh(2r) - f(\beta)) e^{-\Gamma t} + f(\beta) \tag{F.18}$$

$$\Theta_t^{12} = (\Theta_t^{21})^* = -f(\beta_i) e^{i\phi} \sinh(2r) e^{-(\Gamma + 2i\omega)t}, \tag{F.19}$$

that can be rewritten by introducing $\Delta_\beta = (f(\beta_i) - f(\beta)) e^{-\Gamma t} + f(\beta)$ as

$$\Theta_s = f(\beta_t) \begin{bmatrix} \cosh(2r_t) & -e^{i\phi_t} \sinh(2r_t) \\ -e^{-i\phi_t} \sinh(2r_t) & \cosh(2r_t) \end{bmatrix}, \tag{F.20}$$

where $\phi_t = \phi - 2\omega t$ is the squeezing phase, the squeezing parameter is implicitly defined as

$$\cosh(2r_t) = \frac{1}{f(\beta_t)} [\Delta_\beta + 2f(\beta_i) e^{-\Gamma t} \sinh^2(r)], \tag{F.21}$$

and β_t is implicitly defined by

$$f(\beta_t) = \sqrt{\Delta_\beta^2 + 4f(\beta_i) f(\beta) e^{-2\Gamma t} (e^{\Gamma t} - 1) \sinh^2(r)}. \tag{F.22}$$